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Webb, Ruth. Ekphrasis, Imagination and Persuasion in Ancient Rhetorical Theory and Practice, Taylor & Francis Group, 2009. ProQuest Ebook Central, http://ebookcentral.proquest.com/lib/gatech/detail.action?docID=438979.
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Introduction

‘A speech that brings the subject matter vividly before the eyes’

This is the definition of ekphrasis taught to students in the Greek schools of the Roman Empire as they began their studies of rhetoric. It is a very different definition from the one which has become familiar in modern literary criticism for, however ekphrasis is defined in modern critical discourse, it is usually seen as a text or textual fragment that engages with the visual arts. Over the last few decades, ekphrasis has been defined as ‘the poetic description of a pictorial or sculptural work of art’, ‘the verbal representation of visual representation’ or ‘words about an image’. [1] For all their variety, these definitions place a central importance on a certain type of referent: the visual arts (a category which sometimes includes and sometimes excludes buildings and monuments). But this was not its ancient sense.

[1] Leo Spitzer, ‘The “Ode on a Grecian Urn”, or content vs. metagrammar’, in *Essays on English and American Literature*, ed. Anna Hatcher (Princeton, 1962); J.A.W. Heffernan, *Museum of Words* (Chicago, 1993), p. 3; Shadi Bartsch and Jaś Elsner, ‘Introduction: eight ways of looking at an ekphrasis’, *CP*, 102 (2007): i.

This book is an exploration of the range of meaning of the term as it was used in antiquity. It is a positive attempt to understand and explain a set of ideas about language and its impact on the listener that are expressed in the rhetorical handbooks of the first centuries CE, when Greek rhetoric reached a height of sophistication under the Roman Empire. Ideally it ought to be possible to start straight away with this analysis, but the popularity of the modern definition of the term makes it necessary to include some preliminary remarks about what is and what is not included in this book and why.

What This Book Is Not About

This is not a book about word and image, in the sense of ‘words about pictures’. There was indisputably a strong tradition of describing real or imaginary works of art in oratory, historiography, epigram, epic and other poetry. [2] But there is no evidence that these were considered to form a single genre, or that

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that genre had a name, still less that that name would have been 'ekphrasis'. [3] Painting, sculpture and architecture certainly were among the subjects of ekphrasis as it was conceived and defined in antiquity: the *Progymnasmata* – the elementary exercises in rhetoric which contain the first definitions of ekphrasis – mention the Shield of Achilles in *Iliad*, 18 as an example and contain advice on describing sculptures, paintings and buildings. Outside these elementary exercises, the Younger Philostratos refers to his grandfather's *Eikones* as 'ekphraseis of works of graphic art' and many descriptions of such subjects seem clearly to fit the ancient definition by describing their subjects in such vivid detail that the reader does seem to 'see' them. [4] Such subjects certainly *could* be evoked in ekphrasis, but they were not its defining feature.

[2] See, in particular, Jaś Elsner, 'The genres of Ekphrasis', in Elsner (ed.), *The Verbal and the Visual: Cultures of Ekphrasis in Antiquity* = *Ramus*, 31 (2002): 1–18.
[3] As Graham Zanker, 'New light on the "ekphrastic epigram"', *ZPE*, 143 (2003): 59–62 points out, the term 'ekphrastic epigram' is a modern coinage.
[4] Philostratos the Younger, *Eikones*, *Proem*, 2.

I have argued elsewhere that the existence of this intermediate category of ekphraseis (in the ancient sense) of works of art and architecture (like Philostratos' *Eikones* or Paul the Silentiary's verse ekphrasis of Hagia Sophia) provided part of the impetus towards the modern definition as scholars in the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries focused attention on this particular group of texts which then came to stand for the whole category of ekphrasis. [5] But at no point in antiquity (or Byzantium) was ekphrasis confined to a single category of subject matter, nor can every text about images be claimed as ekphrasis in the ancient sense. There are, for example, many epigrams about sculptures which do not seek to 'bring the subject matter before the eyes'. The examples recently analyzed by Simon Goldhill, for example, consider the act of viewing and meditate on naturalism, but their function as comments on the *act* of viewing is different from the central function of ekphrasis: making the listener 'see' the subject in their mind's eye. [6] An ekphrasis may itself constitute a commentary on the act of viewing, but this common feature is not central to the definition of ekphrasis that interests me here. So, the epigrams, like certain passages of Pliny or Pausanias, while very relevant to understanding constructions of viewing in antiquity, are at most only tangentially relevant to the rhetorical practices that are the subject of this book. For that reason they are not included.

[5] See Ruth Webb, 'Ekphrasis ancient and modern: the invention of a genre', *Word and Image*, 15: 7–18.

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[6] Simon Goldhill, 'The naïve and knowing eye: ecphrasis and the culture of viewing in the Hellenistic world', in Simon Goldhill and Robin Osborne (eds), *Art and Text in Ancient Greek Culture* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1994), pp. 197–223; 'What is ekphrasis for?', *CP*, 102 (2007): 16–19.

This study focuses on the rhetorical theory and practice of ekphrasis for the simple reason that it is in the rhetoricians' schools that ekphrasis was defined, taught and practised and it is therefore in the domain of rhetoric that we can find a substantial explanation of what ekphrasis was, how it functioned and what its purpose was. This rhetorical technique of ekphrasis can also be found in poetry, of course, but to study poetic examples in detail would require a separate book.

Many of the poetic descriptions of works of art – the Shield of Achilles, the Hesiodic *Shield of Herakles*, Moschos' *Europa*, Catullus 64, Virgil's *Shield of Aeneas* – do fulfil the basic requirement of 'placing before the eyes' and seem to rival the visual arts, as ekphrasis should. It would therefore have been possible to append a chapter to this book examining these usual suspects from the perspective of rhetorical ekphrasis. But there are many reasons why I decided against this. Firstly, these passages have already been abundantly and fruitfully analyzed by others and I would have very little to add to the existing studies. [7] Secondly, the inclusion of a chapter devoted to one type of subject matter would have created a serious imbalance in the book as a whole. Since my analysis of the rhetorical sense of ekphrasis stresses the inclusiveness of the term, such a final chapter ought to analyze examples of poetic ekphrasis of all types of subject matter: battles, people, animals, landscapes. Needless to say, this is a gargantuan task that is far better undertaken in a series of separate studies of authors, genres or categories of subject. [8]

[7] See, to name but three examples, Alessandro Perutelli, 'L'inversione speculare: per una retorica dell' ekphrasis', *MD*, 1 (1978): 87–98; Andrew Laird, 'Sounding out ekphrasis: art and text in Catullus 64', *JRS*, 83 (1993): 18–30; Froma Zeitlin, 'The artful eye: vision, ekphrasis and spectacle in Euripidean theatre', in Simon Goldhill and Robin Osborne (eds), *Art and Text in Ancient Greek Culture* (Cambridge, 1994), pp. 138–96.

[8] See, for example, Jean-Pierre Aygon, *Pictor in fabula: l'ecphrasis-descriptio dans les tragédies de Sénèque* (Brussels, 2004) and Janice Hewlett Koelb, *The Poetics of Description: Imagined Places in European Literature* (New York, 2006).

What This Book Is About

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This book is an exploration of a particular phenomenon in ancient rhetorical theory and practice: the use of language to try to make an audience imagine a scene. It mines the rhetorical handbooks of the first centuries CE in order to clarify as far as possible how a particular phenomenon was understood and taught and how it fitted into the wider system of rhetorical theory and practice. This means first of all analyzing the (often frustrating) definitions of ekphrasis in the *Progymnasmata* and supplementing their laconic comments by reference to more forthcoming sources such as the first-century Roman rhetorician Quintilian, who supplements rhetorical precepts with accounts of his first-hand experience in the courts. From this study there emerges a clear set of ideas about the word's ability to summon up images in the listener's mind and about the ways in which an orator might need to make use of this technique in very specific ways to bolster his case. The *Progymnasmata*, with the help of Quintilian's insights, help explain the uses of ekphrasis and similar techniques discussed in the more advanced Greek rhetorical manuals on epideictic (occasional speeches) and declamation (judicial and deliberative speeches treating fictive cases). The use of ekphrasis in epideictic is familiar, and Menander Rhetor's manuals on the topic are relatively accessible in their presentation of the topic. But the Greek technical handbooks on declamation are a very different matter. Fortunately, recent studies and translations by Donald Russell, Malcolm Heath, Michel Patillon, George Kennedy and others have opened up this highly technical and specialized field, making it possible to trace the uses of ekphrasis in declamation. [9]

[9] See, in particular, Donald R. Russell, *Greek Declamation* (Cambridge, 1983); Lucia Calboli Montefusco, *La dottrina degli status nella retorica greca e romana* (Hildesheim, 1986); Michel Patillon, *La Théorie du discours chez Hermogène le Rhéteur: essai sur les structures linguistiques de la rhétorique ancienne* (Paris, 1988) and his translation and commentary of Hermogenes: *Hermogène: l'art rhétorique* (Paris, 1997); Malcolm Heath, *Hermogenes on Issues: Strategies of Argument in Later Greek Rhetoric* (Oxford, 1995) and George A. Kennedy, *Hermogenes, Invention and Method: Two Rhetorical Treatises from the Hermogenic Corpus Translated with Introduction and Notes* (Atlanta, 2005).

Looking at ekphrasis in the context of the rhetorical handbooks is revealing. First of all, this approach underlines the close interconnections between Quintilian and the Greek sources on rhetoric. It also shows that the use of ekphrasis was certainly not confined to rhetoric, all our sources make clear that it was used in history and poetry too. But, in the period we are dealing with, rhetoric enjoyed great prestige; it was an active practice studied by a large proportion of male members of the elite and was the

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focus of much of their intellectual energy. In the case of rhetoric, we have evidence for the methods of training in the handbooks while the surviving examples of declamation and epideictic speeches show the direct results of this training whose indirect results are also evident in other sorts of composition.

It is also important to specify the type of relationship between rhetorical theory and rhetorical practice that is assumed in this book. The interest of the handbooks does not lie simply in the provision of a schema against which finished compositions can be measured, identified and judged. [10] Instead, the rhetorical manuals reveal to the modern reader the rich network of ideas and assumptions that underlay the composition and reception of ancient texts. These assumptions are often very different from our own, as might be expected when we take into consideration the fact that the culture of the Imperial period was still very much an oral culture, despite the importance of the written word. The phenomenon of ekphrasis that emerges from this study belongs to a conception of the word as a force acting on the listener, a conception that is familiar from Gorgias' *Enkomion of Helen* but which clearly continued to be active throughout antiquity and beyond, into Byzantium. An investigation of ekphrasis in this sense also reveals some of the energies that dwell within the texts that, to us, are black words lying still on the white page but which, to the ancient reader, were alive with rich visual and emotional effects. The nature of ekphrasis, its defining quality of *enargeia* (or 'vividness'), and the role of the imagination in both mean that this is almost as much a study of ancient psychology as of rhetoric.

[10] For example, Francis Cairns, *Generic Composition in Greek and Roman Poetry* (Edinburgh, 1972) represents a vitally important development in the study of ancient literature and its reception but tends to be over-prescriptive in its use of rhetorical theory. See the general comments of Goldhill, 'What is ekphrasis for?', p. 7.

The study of the ancient definition of ekphrasis is therefore far from being the restrictive move that it is sometimes claimed (whether explicitly or implicitly) to be. It is, I hope, a positive contribution which opens up new perspectives on the rhetorical culture of the Imperial period and on the attitudes to language and verbal representation that were current at that time. The aim of focusing on the ancient definition is not to close down discussion of the phenomenon of 'words about images' either in ancient or modern literature nor to brand certain usages of the word as 'incorrect'. Rather it is to create a space for the ancient definition and to underline quite how different it and its underlying concepts are to our own ideas about texts and literature.

The Modernity of the Modern Definition

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In considering the difference between ancient and modern ekphrasis it is important to bear in mind exactly how recent the modern definition is. One searches in vain for any unambiguous use of the term to mean 'description of a work of art' in any source before the late nineteenth century. [11] It did not become current in critical discourse until the second half of the twentieth century and only then was it applied regularly to modern literature as well as to Greek and Latin texts. In earlier periods, on the rare occasions when the term was employed in the modern European languages, it retained its ancient range of meaning. [12] The modern usage is the result of a series of transformations which took place gradually and unevenly, with the result that it is possible to find scholars using the word in different ways at the same period.

[11] Ekphrasis is not used, to my knowledge, in Gotthold Ephraim Lessing's seminal work on painting and poetry, *Laokoon*. Paul Friedländer, *Johannes von Gaza und Paulus Silentiarius: Kunstbeschreibungen Justinianischer Zeit* (Leipzig and Berlin, 1912) uses the term 'Bildbeschreibung' [description of a picture] and reserves ekphrasis only for texts that fell into the ancient category. Othmar Schissel von Fleschenberg, 'Die Technik des Bildeinsatzes', *Philologus*, 72 (1913): 83–114 and Jean Seznec, 'Flaubert and the graphic arts', *JWCI*, 8 (1945): 175–90 also discuss the subject without recourse to the term 'ekphrasis'.

[12] The first usage of 'ecfrasi' in Italian is a case in point. According to Battaglia's *Grande dizionario della lingua italiana*, the term occurs in Gregorio Comanini's *Il Figino* of 1591 (ed. Barocchi, p. 310). The passage in question is taken directly from the Latin translation of the Acts of the Council of Nicaea in *Concilia omnia*, ed. F.L. Sarius (Colonia Agrippina, 1567) vol. 3, p. 94 (Synodi Nicenae Secundae action quarta), which transliterates the term directly from the Greek original. Although the ekphrasis in question is of paintings, it is not necessary to assume that Comanini understood the term as referring to a genre specialized in this type of description or of 'art criticism'. The first usage in English, in the *Edinburgh Review* of 1815, is similarly ambiguous. The anonymous author refers only to 'an ecphrasis of Libanius' and, as the fourth-century orator and teacher Libanios composed ekphraseis of the whole range of subjects, it is far from sure that he was referring only to his ekphraseis of works of art, as is assumed by Grant F. Scott, 'The rhetoric of dilation: ekphrasis and ideology', *Word and Image*, 7 (1991): 301–10 and *The Sculpted Word: Keats, Ekphrasis, and the Visual Arts* (Hanover, NH, 1994) in what is otherwise an extremely perceptive analysis.

Broadly, it is possible to distinguish four types of usage. The first is a simple transliteration from the Greek: ekphrasis (or its equivalents in other European languages) is used in the same contexts and of the same texts as the ancient Greek term. In the second, the term is used of those ancient examples of

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ekphrasis that happen to describe works of art (and/or architecture). One example of this second stage is J.D. Denniston's definition of ekphrasis as 'the rhetorical description of a work of art, one of the types of *progymnasma*', citing Philostratos' *Eikones*, the lost *Eikones* of Nikostratos, Lucian's *de Domo* and Kallistratos' ekphraseis of statues as examples in the first edition of the *Oxford Classical Dictionary*, published in 1949. [13] The third usage includes any ancient texts about art and is exemplified by Glanville Downey's entry on 'Ekphrasis' published ten years later in the *Reallexikon für Antike und Christentum*, which starts from the Shield of Achilles and includes descriptions of works of art from epic and tragedy. The fourth sense in which the term is used is the far broader 'words about art', conceived as encompassing texts of any genre from any culture or period of history (though very often appealing to the Homeric Shield of Achilles as the inescapable ur-ekphrasis).

[13] Koelb, *The Poetics of Description*, pp. 2–3, underlines the importance of Denniston's new definition, which, as she points out, is contradicted by the entry on the *Progymnasmata* in the same volume.

These meanings are genetically related and it is possible to trace the gradual and uneven process of evolution. I have argued elsewhere that interest in texts like Philostratos' *Eikones* (ekphraseis that have works of art as their subject) led to those particular ekphraseis coming to be seen as representative of ekphrasis *tout court*. [14] I shall retrace some aspects of this process at the end of Chapter 1; here it is sufficient to cite one example that reveals one way in which the process of restriction took place. The origin of Denniston's definition of ekphrasis as a rhetorical description of a work of art lies in the German *Reallexikon des klassischen Altertums* published by Friedrich Lübker in 1914 which served as a model for the first *Oxford Classical Dictionary*. [15] Here ekphrasis is defined as 'rhetorical description, *mostly* of a painting, one of the *Progymnasmata*' ('rhetorische Beschreibung, *zumeist* eines Bildes, die man zu den Progymnasmata zählte') and illustrated by the same examples as in the *OCD* entry. Lübker may overstate the importance of paintings among the ancient subjects of ekphrasis but he makes clear that these ekphraseis are only part of a larger group. Denniston's entry, however, leaves out the crucial adverb *zumeist*, a simple change that turns ekphrasis into an ancient genre specializing in the descriptions of paintings. A seemingly tiny detail of translation in a work considered as authoritative may thus have contributed to the transformation of ekphrasis. [16]

[14] Webb, 'Ekphrasis ancient and modern'.

[15] Friedrich Lübker, *Reallexikon des Klassischen Altertums* (Leipzig and Berlin, 1914).

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[16] Koelb, *The Poetics of Description*, p. 2 suggests that Denniston's entry may have inspired Leo Spitzer's redefinition of ekphrasis in 'The "Ode on a Grecian Urn", or content vs. metagrammar', *Comparative Literature*, 7 (1955): 203–25. For further discussion of Spitzer's article, see Chapter 1.

Ekphrasis and Description

If the only difference between the ancient and modern definitions were the presence or absence of a certain category of subject matter, the question would deserve a few lines of discussion at most. And, if the absence of 'works of art' meant that ekphrasis was fully assimilable to 'description' as commonly understood nowadays, there would also be little more to say. But this is not the case. The most important difference between ekphrasis and the category of 'descriptions of works of art' lies not in the categories of subject matter envisaged for each but in the criteria by which the two groups are defined. It is the common type of referent – 'the work of art' – that makes it possible to classify an epigram on Myron's cow alongside the Shield of Achilles and a passage from Pausanias (not to mention Keats' *Ode*). Yet in the ancient definition the referent is only of secondary importance; what matters, as we have seen, is the impact on the listener. The ancient and modern categories of ekphrasis are thus formed on entirely different grounds, and are ultimately incommensurate, belonging as they do to radically different systems.

If it seems natural to us now to group descriptions according to subject matter it is probably because description itself is popularly conceived as treating a particular class of referent: static objects or persons assimilated to static objects. (The neoclassical critical tradition had, moreover, encouraged the idea that descriptions could and should be classified by their subject matter.) [17] As summed up by Don Fowler, 'narrative is about people, description deals with things.' [18] This very basic distinction is famously identified by Gérard Genette as one of the main characteristics of the modern conception of literature, and has naturally been refined and questioned by many critics who have pointed out, among other things, the practical difficulties involved in separating narration from description once one begins to analyze a text. [19] These ideas – the strict division between narration and description and the association of description with static, non-human or dehumanized referents – are absent from the ancient accounts. Instead we find a marked continuity between ekphrasis and narration and explicit statements that the two modes share the same group of referents, as set out in Chapter 3 below.

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[17] See Jean-Michel Adam, *La Description* (Paris, 1993), pp. 32–9. Terms such as *chronographia* and *topographia* do occur in ancient rhetorical treatises but, as we shall see, were not central to the treatment of ekphrasis.

[18] Don Fowler, 'Narrate and describe: the problem of ekphrasis', *JRS*, 81 (1991), p. 26 (with a useful survey). See also Philippe Hamon, 'Qu'est-ce qu'une description?', *Poétique*, 112 (1972), p. 465; Mieke Bal, *Narratology: Introduction to the Theory of Narrative* (Toronto, 1985), p. 130: 'we will … define a description as a textual fragment in which features are attributed to objects'; Georg Lukács, 'Narrate or describe?', in *Writer and Critic*, ed. A. Kahn (London, 1978), p. 127 points to the modernity of this conception of description when he associates it with the objectification of humanity by capitalism.

[19] Gérard Genette, 'Frontières du récit', in *L'Analyse structurale du récit* (Paris, 1981), p. 162: 'L' opposition entre narration et description, d'ailleurs accentuée par la tradition scolaire, est un des traits majeurs de notre conscience littéraire' [The opposition between narration and description, which, I should add, has been accentuated by traditional methods of teaching, is one of the most important characteristics of our understanding of literature].

By contrast, the emphasis given in the ancient definitions of ekphrasis to effect, over and above any formal or referential characteristics, is striking: an ekphrasis can be of any length, of any subject matter, composed in verse or prose, using any verbal techniques, as long as it 'brings its subject before the eyes' or, as one of the ancient authors says, 'makes listeners into spectators'. Mere words are credited with the ability to make absent things seem present to the spellbound listeners, to control the contents of the most intimate of faculties, the imagination. So, while the visual arts may be literally absent from this definition of ekphrasis, and from most of the discussions by ancient rhetoricians, the *idea* of the visual underpins this mode of speech which rivals the effects of painting or sculpture, creating virtual images in the listener's mind.

It is these basic underpinnings of ancient ekphrasis that make it of interest as well as distinguishing it from the modern usages of the term. The aim of an investigation of ancient ekphrasis is, far from simply pointing out how different the modern definition is, to set the ancient theory and practice in its own context, one in which the concepts of 'literature' and 'art' did not have their modern contours and in which language played a different role. In this context, it is difficult to find exact equivalences between modern literary terminology which was developed mainly for the analysis of written texts (predominantly prose fiction and poetry) and ancient categories of thought. 'Description' is a case in point. Although it is the nearest equivalent to ancient ekphrasis ('descriptio' in Latin) and will be used frequently in this book as a translation, its connotations are very different, as is only to be expected of a

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term that has been defined and discussed with reference to the written word rather than live, oral performance.

Outline

Chapter 1 sets the scene and, after a brief overview of the cultural context to which the ancient definition and use of ekphrasis belong, explores the importance of the visual imagination in the ancient reception of texts of all kinds. The chapter finishes with a more detailed analysis of the formation of the modern meaning of the term which stresses the very different cultural contexts within which this took place and the different interests that motivated it. My exploration of the ancient conception of ekphrasis begins in Chapter 2 with the definition of the term in the *Progymnasmata* and continues in Chapter 3 which focuses on the range of subject matter prescribed for ekphrasis. The interest of the subjects lies not only in their variety (from battles to crocodiles, from figures to battlements) but in the way in which the precise categories used serve to tie ekphrasis into the broader rhetorical context.

These handbooks represent a stage in the students' rhetorical training (a point made by Paul Friedländer) and give us a glimpse of a pedagogical practice designed to instil certain habits in students. [20] They present the advantage of revealing the types of assumptions about language that were assimilated by the student at a very early stage but, for the same reason, there is a limit to what they can tell us in isolation. As text*books* they lack the background of oral explanation, practice and example which would have complemented them in antiquity. As elementary exercises they do not begin to answer questions such as how and why ekphrasis should be used, or why it should be included in a *rhetorical* training at all.

[20] See Ruth Webb, 'The *Progymnasmata* as practice', in Yun Lee Too (ed.), *Education in Greek and Roman Antiquity* (Leiden, 2001), pp. 289–316.

If, however, one places the *Progymnasmata* in the wider contexts of rhetorical training in general and of ancient assumptions about language and psychology which were so widespread as to hardly need articulating, a fuller picture emerges. Ekphrasis was a technique used to make the audience feel involved in the subject matter, to make them feel as if they were at the scene of a crime, or that they themselves witnessed the achievements for which an emperor is being praised. Chapters 4 and 5 turn to the first-century Roman rhetorician Quintilian for an explanation of the rhetorical uses of 'placing before the eyes' and the psychological background to *enargeia* and ekphrasis. In particular, ancient conceptions of

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two closely linked faculties – memory and imagination – are essential to the power of ekphrasis to appeal to the emotions, and also help to explain why rhetoricians could be so confident about the effect vivid language would have on an audience.

Chapter 6 analyses some examples of the use of ekphrasis in both declamation and epideictic as prescribed by the more advanced Greek handbooks of the Imperial period that represent the next stage in rhetorical training after the *Progymnasmata*. This analysis shows first that ekphrasis was indeed conceived as a means of achieving persuasion, of altering the listeners' perception of the subject in a way that helped the orator to win their assent. Secondly, we see the close interconnections between ekphrasis in the Greek tradition and Quintilian's comments on *enargeia* and, finally, ekphrasis in epideictic contexts is shown to have a persuasive function.

Rhetoricians stress the ability of the word to create illusions, for obvious reasons. But their discussions are littered with phrases which betray the 'as if'-ness of both ekphrasis and *enargeia* and the ambiguous status of the mental images they produce. The audience both sees (metaphorically) and fails to see (literally) the subject matter. Ekphrasis is therefore a powerful type of fiction and is central to the explorations of the language's ability to create a universe of likeness that Barbara Cassin has identified as typical of the Second Sophistic. [21] Chapter 7 therefore explores the fictional nature of ekphrasis by looking at instances outside purely rhetorical texts, in the novel, for example, where authors seem to draw attention to the fictional nature of their ekphraseis. It is also possible to apply the reading of ekphrasis as fiction to properly rhetorical usages. Declamations are themselves fictional speeches, a fact which makes the ekphraseis they contain a fiction within a fiction, engaging the audience in a complex combination of acquiescence to and awareness of the illusion. Even the uses of ekphrasis in epideictic speeches, referring as they do to the world known to the audience, can be shown to rely to a certain extent on the ultimate failure of the word to fulfil the task of 'placing before the eyes'. Loss and separation were recurring themes in the epideictic speaker's repertoire as his speeches marked the departures and arrivals, births and deaths that punctuated the lives of the elite and of their cities. The ekphraseis in epideictic in fact often rely for their effect on the acknowledgement that the word cannot replace the actual presence of a person or of a place.

[21] Barbara Cassin, *L'Effet sophistique* (Paris, 1995).

Conclusion

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It should be clear by now to anyone expecting to read about descriptions of works of art (if they are still reading) that they have opened the wrong book. However, I hope that they will continue reading. Descriptions of paintings, sculptures and buildings (even the Shield of Achilles) are discussed as the context requires and there is much else that is relevant to the study of the interaction of text and image. It is also important to stress that this book is not based on the assumption that only ancient categories can be used to analyze texts, simply that ancient categories are worthy of interest in their own right, particularly if we wish to understand more fully the contexts in which the texts we have were composed and some of the ways in which they might have been received and understood by contemporaries.

It is ironic that the modern meaning (which after all has been current for only about half a century at the time of writing) should have almost totally eclipsed the ancient meaning. [22] The late-twentieth-century fascination with the phenomenon of 'descriptions of works of art' has proved extremely fruitful, in particular in encouraging interdisciplinary exchanges between classical scholars and specialists in other periods of literature and, to some extent, between literary scholars and historians of art and archaeologists. However, this achievement has been at the expense of the ancient meaning, which is often acknowledged only to be ignored. The present book aims to fill this lacuna.

[22] Page DuBois, 'Reading the writing on the wall', *CP*, 102 (2007): 45 recalls a publisher's unwillingness to allow the term 'ekphrasis' to be included in the title of a book because of its unfamiliarity. Now it can be difficult to publish a book with the word 'ekphrasis' in the title that does *not* focus on descriptions of works of art.

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1 The Contexts of Ekphrasis

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Interest in ancient art and aesthetics was a vital impetus to the creation of the modern definition of ekphrasis. Another, altogether less positive, factor was the general lack of curiosity in the first part of the twentieth century about the rhetorical culture of the Roman period (particularly the Greek rhetorical culture which could only be seen as a disastrous falling off from the sublime heights of the classical period). It is this disdain that may well have allowed so meticulous a linguist as Denniston to disregard the ancient definition. The results of these combined phenomena can be seen in the vision of both ekphrasis and the rhetoric of the Imperial period in Roland Barthes' overview of ancient rhetoric, published in 1970. Here Barthes cites ekphrasis as the typical product of an age when, he claims, rhetoric had given up any claim to persuasion and was purely for show. Ekphrasis, defined as a self-contained, detachable fragment, was typical of the type of discourse that resulted – that is to say a loosely connected patchwork of passages. [1] Barthes' picture derives from a once pervasive view of the Greek rhetorical practice of the Roman period as the decadent pastime of the disenfranchised who, without a proper forum in which to flex their rhetorical muscles, engaged in sterile semblances of debate. The picture offered by Barthes is a significantly updated version that rightly stresses the role of improvisation in the rhetorical performance of the time and the interaction between rhetoric and 'literature' in the case of the novel. However, it is difficult, if not impossible, to accept the characterization of declamation as a disconnected series of passages after reading theoretical works on the subject such as those by Hermogenes which reveal a highly structured approach in which persuasion was still the main goal.

[1] Roland Barthes, 'L'ancienne rhétorique: aide-mémoire', *Communications*, 16 (1970): 183: 'Le discours étant sans but persuasif mais purement ostentatoire, se déstructure, s'atomise en une suite lâche de morceaux brillants, juxtaposés selon un modèle rhapsodique. Le principal de ces morceaux (il bénéficiait d'une très grosse cote) était la *descriptio* ou *ekphrasis. L'ekphrasis* est un fragment anthologique, transférable d'un discours à un autre …' [Since speeches had no persuasive purpose but were purely a

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matter of display, they lost all structure and broke down into a loosely connected series of brilliant passages, strung together like a rhapsode's song. The most important of these passages – it was highly prized – was *descriptio* or *ekphrasis*. Ekphrasis is a select fragment, which can be transferred from one speech to another …]. On the idiosyncrasies of Barthes' overview of ancient rhetoric, see David Cohen, 'Classical rhetoric and modern theories of discourse', in Ian Worthington (ed.), *Persuasion: Greek Rhetoric in Action* (London, 1994), pp. 76–7.

The Context of Ancient Ekphrasis

The *Progymnasmata* which offer the definitions of ekphrasis as 'a speech that brings the subject matter vividly before the eyes' [2] belong to the first centuries CE. The version by Ailios Theon is usually accepted as the earliest and dated to the first century, while those by a certain Nikolaos are dated to the fifth century. [3] Between lie the third-century version wrongly attributed in antiquity to the famous rhetorician Hermogenes of Tarsos and those of Aphthonios from the fourth century. To the information offered by the *Progymnasmata* can be added Quintilian's discussion of *enargeia* and the advice on the use of ekphrasis in the context of larger speeches to be found in the more advanced rhetorical treatises by Hermogenes (second century), Menander Rhetor (later third century), Sopatros Rhetor (fourth century) and Syrianos (fifth century). All these authors are witnesses to the rich rhetorical culture that flourished in the Greek-speaking areas of the Roman Empire and survived in the Byzantine Middle Ages (to a far greater extent than in the medieval West). Throughout this period the study of rhetoric dominated the education of the elite and mastery both of the Attic dialect and of rhetorical forms of exposition was a prerequisite for many careers, even for acceptance as a male member of the elite, and a central element in certain conceptions of Greekness.

[2] See, for example, Theon, *Progymnasmata*, 118, l. 7: #κφρασίς #στι λόγος περιηγηματικ#ς #ναργω#ς #π' #ψιν #γων τ# δηλούμενον.
[3] Malcolm Heath, 'Theon and the history of the *Progymnasmata*', *GRBS*, 43 (2002/3): 129–60 argues for a much later date for Theon, identifying him with the fifth-century rhetorician of the same name. I prefer to retain the earlier date because of the parallels with Quintilian and the unusual use of Hellenistic historians while acknowledging that these are by no means decisive criteria.

For more humble families who could nevertheless afford to educate their sons, a training in rhetoric offered a chance for the talented to improve their social position. This is the picture drawn by the 'autobiography' of the second-century Syrian Lucian, who depicts his young self torn between his own

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desire to study rhetoric (*paideia*) and his family's demands that he earn a living as a sculptor. *Paideia* personified offers fame, fortune and travel to the young Lucian in contrast to a life of toil in the workshop. [4] The type of fame and fortune to which Lucian refers is exemplified in Philostratos' *Lives of the Sophists*, a collective portrait of the most famous Greek exponents of the art of rhetoric in the second and early third centuries (among whom Lucian is not counted). The accounts of charismatic star teachers and speakers described by Philostratos, who coined the term 'Second Sophistic' to describe the phenomenon, give a vivid impression of the glamour and popularity of rhetorical display at the period: speakers drew large audiences who adulated them but who could also be skilled listeners able to criticize the performances they listened to.

[4] Lucian, *The Dream or His Life*, 1–13.

Philostratos' Sophists performed declamations (*meletai*), fictional speeches that also formed part of the rhetorical training delivered in schools. These *meletai* were speeches on imaginary cases in which the speaker took on the persona of a character in a situation specially formulated to pose a particular rhetorical problem. Many of the cases were set in the classical Greek past (none post-date the death of Alexander in 323 BCE) and involved characters such as Perikles or Demosthenes in situations more or less loosely based on history. Others were imaginary but involved a stock cast of characters drawn from the world of the classical *polis*: the young hero, the rich man, the general, the tyrant, the orator. Declamation demanded a certain dramatic talent from its exponents who had to speak in persona (Philostratos mentions Polemo's habit of leaping up from his chair at the climax of his argument and of stamping on the ground, while Herodes Attikos is said at one point to have had tears in his eyes as he declaimed on a particularly emotive subject). [5] But, above all, it required precise skills of analysis and argumentation and a mastery of presentation and style (all in irreproachable atticizing Greek). It was the structures provided by this training (rather than the lack of them as Barthes claims) that allowed the best declaimers to improvise lengthy and complex speeches.

[5] Philostratos, *Lives of the Sophists*, 537 and 574.

The other principle public activity of Philostratos' sophists was epideictic oratory: occasional speeches marking significant moments in citizens' lives or in the life of the city. By the Roman period, the range of occasions for such speeches was vast: they marked the arrivals and departures of dignitaries or even pupils within a school, invitations to governors, weddings, deaths and funerals and festivals. Nor was there a complete absence of occasions for more obviously practical uses of rhetoric: Philostratos mentions several cases where these rhetorical performers and teachers had to use their art in their own

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defence in court, and city councils – *boulai* – still provided a forum for debate among the wealthy elite. [6] In the fourth century, when power was concentrated more directly in the person of the emperor, Libanios used his rhetorical skills to try to persuade Theodosios of various changes that should be made in the administration of Antioch. [7] Just as importantly, Malcolm Heath has shown how the skills taught in the rhetorical schools could be put to use in actual court cases. [8]

[6] See Laurent Pernot, *La Rhétorique de l'éloge dans le monde gréco-romain* (2 vols, Paris, 1993) and *La Rhétorique dans l'Antiquité* (Paris, 2000), pp. 104–7 (on the survival of political rhetoric after the battle of Chaeronea); John Ma, 'Public speech and community in the *Euboicus*', in Simon Swain (ed.), *Dio Chrysostom_ Politics, Letters, and Philosophy* (Oxford, 2002).
[7] For one example, see Bernard Schouler, 'Un enseignant face aux prisons de son temps', *Pallas*, 72 (2006): 279–96.
[8] Malcolm Heath, 'Practical advocacy in Roman Egypt', in Michael J. Edwards and Christopher Reid (eds), *Oratory in Action* (Manchester, 2004), pp. 62–82.

The case of Augustine in fourth-century North Africa illustrates the continued importance of a rhetorical education: though not wealthy, Augustine's family were determined to allow him to develop his talent by sending him to Madauros and then to Carthage in the hope that his studies would lead to a distinguished career as an advocate. [9] His trajectory is very similar to that depicted in Lucian's *Dream* and illustrates the uses to which a rhetorical training could be put in an increasingly Christian context. Augustine was certainly not alone. In the Greek East the fourth century saw the continuing importance of rhetorical training as offered by men like Libanios and his rival teachers, many of whose pupils were Christians. The talent of these Greek Christian rhetors of the fourth century – Gregory of Nyssa, his brother Basil of Caesarea and Basil's friend Gregory Nazianzen, who studied rhetoric with him at Athens – has led to them being identified as part of a 'Third Sophistic', a title that emphasizes the continued value and relevance of rhetoric beyond the third century. [10]

[9] Augustine, *Confessions*, II, iii (5) and III, iii (6) – iv (7).
[10] See, for example, Averil Cameron, *Christianity and the Rhetoric of Empire: The Development of Christian Discourse* (Berkeley, 1991); Peter Brown, *Power and Persuasion in Late Antiquity: Towards a Christian Empire* (Madison, 1992); Eugenio Amato (ed.), *Approches de la Troisième Sophistique: hommages à Jacques Schamp* (Brussels, 2006).

Recent studies of the Second Sophistic have rightly emphasized the social, political and cultural functions of rhetorical performance as a means of communicating power and negotiating identity. [11] The

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predominance of classical themes made declamation a means of asserting and exploring Greek identity. [12] So, while orators may no longer have been at the forefront of politics, as in classical Athens or Republican Rome, rhetorical performance provided an important forum for the Greek citizens of the Empire to assert their identity, to achieve social status among their peers and their contemporaries and was one of the principal media in which relationships with Rome and the representatives of the Empire were constructed. [13]

[11] See, for example, Maud Gleason, *Making Men: Sophists and Self-presentation in Ancient Rome* (Princeton, 1995); Thomas Schmitz, *Bildung und Macht: Zur sozialen und politischen Funktion der zweiten Sophistik in der griechischen Welt der Kaiserzeit* (Munich, 1997); Tim Whitmarsh, *Greek Literature and the Roman Empire* (Oxford, 2001).
[12] See the seminal work of Ewen L. Bowie, ‘Greeks and their past in the Second Sophistic’, in Moses I. Finley (ed.), *Studies in Ancient Society* (London, 1974), pp. 116–209 and Paolo Desideri, ‘Filostrato: la comtemporaneità del passato greco’, in Fernando Gascó and Emma Falque (eds), *Pasado renacido: Uso y abuso de la tradición clásica* (Seville, 1992), pp. 55–70.
[13] See on this point Laurent Pernot, ‘La rhétorique de l’empire ou comment la rhétorique grecque a inventé l’empire romain’, *Rhetorica*, 16 (1998): 131–48.

It is equally important not to lose sight of the more technical aspects of the art of rhetoric and its continued utility as an intellectual training with many applications. Malcolm Heath, for example, has recently stressed the value of the rhetorical education offered in the schools of the Imperial period and the very practical considerations that ensured its survival. [14] He has also shown the continuing vitality of the rhetorical tradition beyond the second- and early-third-century period portrayed by Philostratos. The *Progymnasmata* textbooks belong to this long history of rhetoric, spanning as they do the first five centuries CE, and showing the continued processes of adaptation and reflection that took place.

[14] Malcolm Heath, *Menander: A Rhetor in Context* (Oxford, 2004), esp. pp. 277–331.

Rhetoric: Theory and Practice

The principle sources for the rhetorical conception of ekphrasis, the *Progymnasmata*, consist primarily of a set of definitions and instructions for the various exercises, of which ekphrasis was one. The value of these exercises for us lies precisely in their elementary status. As the gateway through which every rhetorically educated person passed (and the final stage in the education of those who could not find the time or the money to achieve a full rhetorical training), they reveal assumptions about language and

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ways of reading exemplary classical authors which were inculcated at an early age. [15] In particular, the *Progymnasmata* represented a process of transition from reading to speaking, the moment when the schoolboy, whether in Egypt, Syria or Asia Minor, now primed with examples and mastery of the classical Attic idiom still used in high-level discourse, first began to put together his own compositions and to learn to be heard as well as to listen. The most important thing that students learned by working through the *Progymnasmata* was not rules as such but a set of practices and skills that could be put to use in (or transferred to) the composition of full-scale speeches or other types of composition. [16]

[15] On ancient education and its social implications, see Robert A. Kaster, *Guardians of Language: The Grammarian and Society in Late Antiquity* (Berkeley, 1988); Teresa Morgan, *Literate Education in the Hellenistic and Roman Worlds* (Cambridge, 1998); Yun Lee Too (ed.), *Education in Greek and Roman Antiquity* (Leiden, 2001). Raffaella Cribiore, *The School of Libanius in Late Antique Antioch* (Princeton and Oxford, 2007), p. 146, suggests that for many students the *Progymnasmata* would have represented the bulk of the rhetorical training they received.
[16] See, for example, Jean Bouffartigue, *L'Empereur Julien et la culture de son temps* (Paris, 1992), pp. 523–33.

The *Progymnasmata* were therefore neither abstract nor isolated from the rest of the cultural context. Their purpose was to prepare students for a life of speaking in which the failure to use the socially sanctioned forms at the macro level of speeches or the micro level of grammar and vocabulary could lead to serious embarrassment. [17] They were also part of a preparation for a life of critical and agonistic listening. The mention in the definition of ekphrasis of 'placing the subject before the eyes' (*hup'opsin*) is therefore far from theoretical. This was an effect that students were taught to expect to feel for themselves when they read Homer or Thucydides, the most frequently cited sources. But it did not end there. The point of this reading was ultimately to enable students to work the same effect on others as they themselves became active users of rhetoric, first of all in their elementary ekphraseis and later in the full-scale speeches they would compose and perform for their peers in the rhetorical schools and in the wider world. The discussions of ekphrasis in the *Progymnasmata* and in other rhetorical treatises show how future citizens were taught to participate in its power both as readers or listeners and as speakers. They thus learned to situate themselves as part of a continuous tradition stretching from Homer to the Roman present and to see themselves as involved in a reciprocal process, reproducing the *effect* that the classical models had on them on their own audiences.

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[17] See, for example, Lucian's self-defence against an accusation that he misused an Attic term in *The Mistaken Critic* (*Pseudologista*). See also Simon Swain, *Hellenism and Empire: Language, Classicism and Power in the Greek World, AD 50–250* (Oxford, 1996), pp. 43–64.

Above all, the rhetorical texts that form the basis of this study were part of the living culture of their epoch. The definitions and classifications that they contain were not the result of abstract theorizing in an antique ivory tower but reflected and shaped actual practices. The *Progymnasmata* in particular, poised as they are between the stage of reading and speaking, also tell us about habits of reading that were deeply ingrained. One particular habit derived from the schools, and also encouraged by the surrounding culture, was a deep identification with texts of the past, their authors and the events they relate, something that can be seen clearly in the ways in which the Homeric poems are appropriated throughout Greek and Roman culture, particularly in the way in which Homer himself is cast as a teacher for the present. [18] The rhetoricians' discussions of ekphrasis, the type of writing that 'places before the eyes', tell us about the imaginative engagement that was expected. Young readers were encouraged not to approach texts as distanced artefacts with a purely critical eye, but to engage with them imaginatively, to think themselves into the scenes and to feel as if they were present at the death of Patroklos, the making of the Shield of Achilles, or the Athenian disaster in Sicily during the Peloponnesian War. This openness of the past to those with the educational attainments to read the texts is clear from the uses of classical history in the declamations that were set in the classical past. Whether performed by students in schools or by professional sophists these speeches show a creative attitude towards classical history. For all the reverence paid to the past, history was not a fixed, inalterable object; events could be freely manipulated to serve the needs of the present. [19] This openness of history, its availability as matter for manipulation, also underlies the irreverent re-imaginings of the classical tradition by an author such as Lucian or the creative re-presentations of moments from myth and tragedy in the Philostratean *Heroikos*, as well as the better-known *Eikones* or *Imagines*. One particular manifestation of this attitude towards the past is the habit of reading for the sensation of being plunged into the scene or transported back into the moment, which emerges clearly from the rhetoricians' discussions of ekphrasis and is evident in other sources as well. This habit of responding imaginatively to the written or spoken word forms a vital part of the background to the teaching and use of ekphrasis in rhetorical contexts and deserves to be explored briefly here.

[18] See especially ps.-Plutarch, *On the Life and Poetry of Homer*; Robert Lamberton, *Homer the Theologian: Neoplatonist Allegorical Reading and the Growth of the Epic Tradition* (Berkeley, 1986) and Froma Zeitlin, 'Visions and revisions of Homer in the Second Sophistic', in Simon Goldhill, ed.,

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Being Greek under Rome: Cultural Identity, the Second Sophistic and the Development of Empire (Cambridge, 2001), pp. 195–266.

[19] On the manipulation of the past in the declamations, see Thomas Schmitz, 'Performing history in the Second Sophistic', in M. Zimmermann (ed.), *Geschichtsschreibung und politischer Wandel im 3. Jh. N. Chr.* (Stuttgart, 1999); Ruth Webb, 'Fiction, mimesis and the performance of the Greek past in the Second Sophistic', in David Konstan and Suzanne Saïd (eds), *Greeks on Greekness: Viewing the Greek Past under the Roman Empire* (Cambridge, 2006), pp. 27–46. The most famous ancient statement of this freedom is in Plutarch's *Life of Solon*, 27.1.

Seeing Words

Poets and prose writers, orators and historians were all credited with the ability to 'place a subject before the audience's eyes'. The many reports of the visual impact of reading texts from classical antiquity make it clear that intense imaginative involvement with the scenes described was a common type of response to texts. As mentioned above, Homer and Thucydides were the examples most often cited in the *Progymnasmata* and their impact on the ancient reader is confirmed in other sources. These ancient writers often use language that is close to the terminology we find in the technical definitions of ekphrasis which is credited with the ability to place 'before the eyes' (*hup'opsin*) or to make listeners into 'spectators' (*theatai*). Plutarch, for example, writing in the late first or early second century CE echoes the *Progymnasmata* in his judgement of Thucydides' ability to make his readers feel as if they were present at the events he describes:

> Thucydides is always striving for this vividness (*enargeia*) in his writing, as he eagerly desires to make the listener a spectator, as it were, and to produce in the minds of his readers the feelings of astonishment and consternation which were experienced by those who witnessed the events.
>
> # γο#ν Θουκυδίδης #ε# τ# λόγ# πρ#ς ταύτην #μιλλ#ται τ#ν #νάργειαν, ο#ον θεατ#ν ποι#σαι τὸν #κροατ#ν κα# τ# γινόμενα περ# το#ς #ρ#ντας #κπληκτικ# κα# ταρακτικ# π#θη το#ς #ναγιν#σκουσιν #νεργάσασθαι λιχνευόμενος.

As this suggests, the visual impact is not an end in itself but has the further effect of producing an emotional impact, involving the listener in the events. The same enthusiasm for the visual impact of words is shown by ps.-Longinos in his discussion of the sublime. Citing Herodotos' account of the journey from Elephantine to Meroe (26.2, cf. 9.6), he exclaims: 'do you see, my friend, how he takes your soul and leads it through these places, turning hearing into sight (*tēn akoēn opsin poiōn*)?' In these

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contexts, the difference between Thucydides the dispassionate reporter and Herodotos the teller of tall tales is nowhere to be seen. Instead, both are sources of visual experience which transports the reader back to the events described, involving him both imaginatively and emotionally.

Xenophon, too, was renowned for his ability to make his readers feel that they were participating in the events of his history. Plutarch attributes the same power to him as to Thucydides, claiming that the long account of the battle of Cunaxa in which the younger Cyrus was killed (*Anabasis*, 1.8) all but showed the events to the reader, making him feel that it was taking place not in the distant past but before his very eyes, and that the reader (*akroatēs*) was filled with emotion and shared in the danger. [20] Lucian has a fictional speaker in his *Eikones* attribute the same power to Xenophon's account of the nobility and fidelity of Pantheia, wife of Abradates (*Cyropaideia*, 6.4.2–8), exclaiming that he feels as if he could actually see and all but (*mononouchi*) hear her arming her husband and sending him out to battle and to his death. [21] Here the exoticism of the character – a non-Greek woman acting in a manly fashion – intensifies the effect of the passage and the visual pleasure derived from it, as well as serving as a reminder of the relentlessly masculine point of view of educated response. The underlying erotic interest in the figure of Pantheia emerges clearly from Lucian's wider context – a debate on the representability of the emperor's mistress – and from Philostratos' representation of Pantheia's suicide over Abradates' body (*Eikones*, 2.9).

[20] Plutarch, *Artaxerxes*, 8.1. Plutarch uses the same formula here as he did of Thucydides, saying that both authors represent events not as having happened, using the perfect tense (*gegenēmena*), but as happening, using the present (*gignomena*).
[21] Lucian, *Eikones*, 10. On this passage, see Simon Goldhill, 'The erotic eye: visual stimulation and cultural conflict', in Goldhill (ed.), *Being Greek under Rome: Cultural Identity, the Second Sophistic and the Development of Empire* (Cambridge, 2001), p. 189.

Philostratos' treatment brings out a further habit of ancient readers – that of imaginatively elaborating upon the scenes presented in texts. Philostratos takes Xenophon as his starting point, citing his source in the opening lines of his description. He points out that Xenophon himself did not describe the appearance of his heroine, but merely her character (*ēthos*) (2.9.1) and claims that the painter of the picture he is describing filled the gaps, painting Pantheia 'as he deduced her to be from her soul'. The painting that Philostratos goes on to describe therefore corresponds to a way of reading in which a verbal account of a scene provokes a more detailed visualization, a sensual response. In this case the beauty of Pantheia remains tantalizingly elusive; only her posture as she lies over her husband's body after her

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suicide is described in any specific detail. Otherwise her appearance is described in only the most general of terms, implying that for the full experience we must turn to the ever-invisible painting and, by implication, to our imaginations.

The best-known and most explicit account of such imaginative supplementation of a text is to be found in the compendious guide to the whole rhetorical curriculum by the first-century CE Roman rhetorician Quintilian, the *Institutio oratoria*. Citing a passage from the *Verrine Orations* in which Cicero gave a brief tableau of Verres with his mistress, Quintilian freely admits that the image that arises in his mind when he reads those lines contains details that are not in the text. [22] What is more, he presents this response to Cicero's exemplary *enargeia* not just as normal but as normative, introducing it with the question 'is there anyone so incapable of (*tam procul abest*) forming images of things that he does not seem to see …?' The passage and its implications for our understanding of ekphrasis will be discussed below, for the moment I would just like to highlight the way in which Quintilian presents his response as the norm_ anyone who fails to respond as he does falls short of his readerly ideal. The same confidence that imaginative involvement is the educated norm is shown by the Augustan writer Dionysios of Halikarnassos in his discussion of the *enargeia* of the fourth-century BCE Attic orator, Lysias. 'No one', he claims, 'can be so clumsy, difficult to please, or slow-witted (*skaios, dusarestos kai bradus ton noun*) that he will not feel that he can see what is being shown (*ta dēloumena*) actually happening and that he is conversing with the characters introduced by the orator as if they were present'. [23] Like Quintilian, he has only pejorative terms to describe those who fail to respond as he does.

[22] Quintilian, *Institutio oratoria*, 8.3.64–5. For further discussion of this passage, see Chapter 5.
[23] The Augustan writer, Dionysios of Halikarnassos, *Lysias* 7.

In his discussion, acutely analysed by Graham Zanker, [24] Dionysios claims that Lysias' *enargeia* made the reader feel as if he was in the presence of the characters themselves, even able to converse with them (*homilein*). This *enargeia* 'is a certain power to lead the things shown before the senses' (*dunamis tis hupo tas aisthēseis agousa ta dēloumena*). [25] This definition of *enargeia* is very close to the language used to define ekphrasis, which can be literally translated as a speech (*logos*) which leads the thing shown vividly before the eyes (*hup'opsin agon ta dēloumena*). The difference lies essentially in the mention of 'the senses', where the *Progymnasmata* mention only sight, the supreme sense. But, as we shall see, even the *Progymnasmata* definition assumes that senses other than sight can be excited by the workings of ekphrasis. Dionysios casts himself not as a distanced spectator but, like those avid readers of battle narratives, as a participant who could almost enter into the scene himself and converse with the

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characters. This is partly the result of Lysias' famed skill at conveying the character of the litigants for whom he wrote through the language he gave them to speak, but Dionysios' language of showing and of vision makes clear that the impact was felt as above all a visual one.

[24] Graham Zanker, 'Enargeia in the ancient criticism of poetry', *RhMus*, 124 (1981): 297–311.

[25] Dionysios of Halikarnassos, *Lysias* 7.

Readers of tragedy, too, felt drawn into the absent spectacle just by reading the words. Several ancient commentators note the vividness of tragic passages. [26] Dio Chrysostom in the first century prefaces his discussion of the three versions of *Philoktetes* by the three great tragedians that were still extant in his day by saying that he 'was magnificently entertained by the spectacle (*thea*)' as he read (Or. 52.3). And ps.-Longinos describes the sheer emotional force of merely reading certain passages from tragedy. Vividness (*enargeia*) in poetry, he explains, has a shattering impact (*ekplēxis*). In the mouths of Greek writers of the Roman period these sentiments attest to the constant presence of the classical past. Dio imagines himself as a classical producer, staging the three *Philoktetes* in his head. But, as Froma Zeitlin has shown, it was a response not confined to Greek readers in the case of Homer. [27] Nor did the prestige of the past necessarily imply the inadequacy of the present; Dio notes that he was able to compare the tragedians' plays in a way that would not have been possible for a fifth-century Athenian. As has already been noted, what is striking about the use of the classics throughout the Roman period is the freedom with which the past could be remodelled and reworked. The canonical classical texts, for all the respect paid to them, were not seen as untouchable monuments but as sources of material, as spurs to emulation. Even at the humble level of the rhetorical schoolroom, boys were taught to undercut the epic heroes, finding fault with Achilles, or to argue with the canonical stories. [28] The past was exemplary but was part of a common cultural property for all those who were educated, and thus open to endless reworking as readers became speakers and writers in their turn. [29]

[26] See Roos Meijering, *Literary and Rhetorical Theories in Greek Scholia* (Groningen, 1987), esp. pp. 49–52.

[27] Zeitlin, 'Visions and revisions of Homer in the Second Sophistic'.

[28] See Webb, 'The *Progymnasmata* as practice', pp. 301–2.

[29] See especially Whitmarsh, *Greek Literature and the Roman Empire*; Joy Connolly, 'Problems of the past in Imperial Greek education', in Yun Lee Too (ed.), *Greek and Roman Education* (Leiden, 2001),

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pp. 339–72; Schmitz, *Bildung und Macht*, in an otherwise brilliant analysis of the social function of sophistic practices, places too much emphasis on the past as an overwhelming burden that crushed the elite.

In her review of reader-response through the ages Jane Tompkins notes this imaginative and emotional engagement of ancient readers. She argues that ancient understandings of the relation between text and reader were very different from the more analytical approaches of modern reader-response criticism. [30] In particular, she identifies this involvement as a key difference between ancient criticism and modern reader-oriented theories: rather than being concerned primarily with deciphering meaning, ancient critics reveal a 'concept of language as a force acting on the world'. [31] What Tompkins' analysis underlines is the contrast between ancient and modern attitudes to literature and language. Where the modern professional reader, the critic, tends to treat his or her subject as an object of analysis, the ancient critic stresses the impact of the text. This does not, of course, mean that modern readers do not respond in the ways described by ancient critics, but that these types of responses are not valued, theorized and articulated in the same way and do not have the same social and cultural significance as, say, an Imperial Greek reader's response to his classical reading.

[30] Jane P. Tompkins, 'The reader in history: the changing shape of literary response', in Jane P. Tompkins (ed.), *Reader-response Criticism_ From Formalism to Post-structuralism* (Baltimore, 1980).
[31] Tompkins, 'The reader in history', pp. 202–3. See also Walter Ong, *Orality and Literacy: The Technologizing of the Word* (New York, 1988), Chapter 3.

Discussions of visual response to words, as Tompkins points out, are one area in which these differences emerge particularly acutely. As Ellen Esrock has noted, 'readerly visuality' has been neglected as a valid response by modern criticism for a variety of reasons. [32] Ancient critics, by contrast, speak as if such imaginative responses to words were the norm. In the case of Quintilian and Dionysios, failure to respond in this way is even seen as a sign of a much greater moral deficiency. Those who do not respond as they do are branded as slow, incapable, difficult to please – the language bristles with terms of distance and negation ('abest', *dusarestos*). Such confidence may seem surprising to us. It goes against our own culture's tendency to assume that visualization in response to reading is personal and variable in intensity and in content. An average group of twentieth- or twenty-first-century readers will probably contain individuals who admit to similar experiences when reading, and others who claim never to 'see' what they read. Many people assume that their experience of reading is universal and seem genuinely surprised to find that others have such different experiences of reading. [33] This discrepancy between

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modern experience and the claims of ancient critics raises the question of whether we should discount the claims of ancient critics, or whether the ancient experience of reading was very different from our own. When Quintilian and Dionysios both ask 'who could fail to' respond in the ways they prescribe they open up the possibility that some individuals may not have responded in this way but, at the same time, they make clear what they consider the norm to be. The question of whether this represents a real difference in response between ancient and modern audiences has been raised by Ann Vasaly and I would agree with her suggestion that things *were* different in the ancient world and that ancient audiences were more consciously attuned to visual effects and did 'see' the subject of poems and speeches in their mind's eye. [34]

[32] Ellen J. Esrock, *The Reader's Eye: Visual Imaging as Reader Response* (Baltimore, 1994).
[33] These conclusions are the result of several discussions with small seminar groups composed of graduate students and faculty at Princeton University. For a more scientific approach, see Jocelyn Penny Small, *Wax Tablets of the Mind: Cognitive Studies of Memory and Literacy in Classical Antiquity* (London, 1997), pp. 130–31 on the work of Michel Denis.
[34] Ann Vasaly, *Representations: Images of the World in Ciceronian Oratory* (Berkeley, 1993), p. 99. On the question of how rhetors could predict the imaginative response of their audience, which Vasaly raises here, see Chapters 4 and 5 below. I am leaving aside the question of what the mental experience expressed by the claims to 'see' actually might have been.

The most striking difference does not perhaps reside in the elusive domain of personal response but in the discussions of that response. It is clear that visualization was valued and encouraged within ancient education as part of a larger attitude to literature as a force able to penetrate and shape the individual. The ability of words to affect the imagination is allied to the idea that they can enter and dwell in the soul, leading one authority, according to Plutarch, to suggest giving ear-guards to the young to protect them from the wrong sort of language. [35] Ancient education clearly placed a value on visualization as a response, and created a vocabulary for the identification and expression of such experiences. It is perhaps not surprising that in a culture such as our own, where the attitude to visualization is sceptical and the activity considered as an intensely individual matter, reports of experience should vary so enormously. In antiquity, by contrast, such visualization could be a very public and shared matter, as we shall see. In particular, it is clear that educators expected and encouraged visualization. One area where we have clear evidence of training in visualization in ancient schools is that of memory techniques which relied on the conscious creation, manipulation and storage of often bizarre images. [36] And, as Small points out, in a culture in which the technical difficulties involved in reading and writing made

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memorization a vital skill it is conceivable that people were more prone to use mental images in speaking and listening than we are. [37]

[35] Plutarch, *On Listening to Lectures* (*Moralia* 37F–38B).
[36] *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, 3.16.28–24.30. See also Cicero, *De oratore*, 2.354–60; Quintilian, *Institutio oratoria*, 11.2; the seminal work of Frances Yates, *The Art of Memory* (London, 1966); and Small, *Wax Tablets of the Mind*.
[37] See also Agnès Rouveret, *Histoire et imaginaire de la peinture ancienne (Ve s. av. J.-C.–Ier s. ap. J.-C.)* (Rome, 1989), p. 312.

In all the examples cited above, the readers who felt that they were in the presence of the subject matter were responding to a text from an earlier period. They reveal a concept of classical texts as privileged points of access to the experience of the past, which make not just the subjects seem present but the authors as well. Again, this was clearly a practice encouraged by their education. A discussion of reading aloud by the first-century rhetorician Theon of Alexandria recommends that the student reading the text of a classical orator should think himself into the skin of the original speaker – Demosthenes or Aeschines, for example – at the original moment of performance. The point of this method acting is to involve him totally in the text, emotionally as well as intellectually. [38] Such deep identification with the authors of the past continued in schools with the exercise of declamation, in which students argued imaginary cases in the persona of a character from the classical past, often an orator like Demosthenes. [39]

[38] Theon, *Progymnasmata*, section 13 (p. 103). This discussion of reading aloud comes from the end of the work, which does not survive in the Greek manuscripts and is preserved only in the Armenian translation.
[39] See Brian Reardon, *Courants littéraires grecs des IIe et IIIe siècles après J.-C.* (Paris, 1971); Donald Russell, *Greek Declamation* (Cambridge, 1983); Schmitz, *Bildung und Macht* and ‘Performing History’; and Webb, ‘Fiction, mimesis and the performance of the Greek past’.

Theon’s recommendations also help to explain the way in which ancient readers of all types of text cast themselves as listeners. The term translated ‘reader’ in several of the examples above is *akroatēs* – ‘listener’ – and what is read is often referred to as a *logos*, with all its implications of live speech. Despite the importance of the written word, and its culturally crucial role in preserving the words of past eras, the reception of texts remained an essentially aural experience. Active listening was considered as an important activity in itself. [40] As Theon shows, reading in the school situation meant reading aloud to others, and even solitary readers are known to have pronounced the words out loud, casting themselves

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simultaneously as speaker and audience. [41] This effacement of the written medium brings the author, whether poet, historian or orator, into direct proximity, casting the reader as a live audience member, like Dio at his private 'performances' of tragedy. All readers, even of the deadest of poets, are thus assimilated to the audiences of a live performance.

[40] See Theon, *Progymnasmata*, section 14 and Plutarch, *On Listening to Lectures* (*Moralia* 37C–48D).
[41] See William Harris, *Ancient Literacy* (Cambridge, MA, 1989), pp. 35–6 with further bibliography.

The live audiences of spoken orations were also assumed to respond in the same way to the effective use of vivid language. We have fewer testimonies of individual response, but the whole treatment of ekphrasis and *enargeia* by ancient rhetoricians is based on the assumption that audiences can be made to respond imaginatively to a speech, placing themselves in the situation described. Aristotle, in the *Rhetoric* (1411 b24–5), refers to the ability of certain metaphors to place the image 'before the eyes' – *pro ommatōn* – and makes a distinction between metaphors that evoke an image of motion (*energeia*) which have this effect, and others, whose image is static, which do not. Quintilian (8.3.62) also makes clear that the audience of a judicial speech should have the subject matter 'displayed to the eyes of the mind', and that he regards success in this as a vital ingredient of the persuasive force of the speech. The speech will not have the power that it should ('debet') have if the judge believes he is hearing a simple narration, rather than having the facts displayed to his mind's eye, 'si narrari credit, non exprimi et oculis mentis ostendi'.

Quintilian's purpose in describing his own response to Cicero, or picking out the vivid passages in the *Aeneid* is therefore to explain to his own readers how, and why, to work the same effect in their own speeches. This practical orientation is shared by most ancient critics – they aim to tell us how to do it, not simply to analyse the qualities of a particular writer or passage – making ancient 'criticism' a very different phenomenon from modern literary criticism. Ancient 'critics' were mostly practitioners of rhetoric and their primary goal was to show others how to be active practitioners and how to harness the power of language for their own ends. Just as the ancient reader was simultaneously speaker and listener as he read aloud, educated readers in general expected to become writers and speakers in their turn. [42]

[42] Harris, *Ancient Literacy*, pp. 222–3 notes 'it may seem that only the exceptionally inarticulate members of the Roman upper class refrained from literary composition'. The same can be said of the Greek elite in the Roman period, assuming that 'literary composition' includes rhetorical compositions.

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The elementary exercise of ekphrasis was one means by which students were taught to appreciate the ability of words to spark an image in the mind and to master this power for themselves. The discussions of ekphrasis can therefore help us to understand how texts were read and what impact the spoken word was thought to have upon an audience. They also reveal the strength of the conception of language as a power acting upon the world that was current throughout antiquity. As a special use of language to bring the subject matter 'before the eyes' of the listener, penetrating the mind and acting on the most intimate of faculties, ekphrasis and *enargeia* also lie at the intersection of word and image. Any examination of either has to take account of ancient theories of psychology in which mental images (*phantasmata* or *phantasiai*) played a vital part from the classical period onwards. The plain, paradoxical statement we find in the *Progymnasmata* and elsewhere that language places a subject 'before the eyes' depended on a body of assumptions about language and its impact on the human mind. In turn, these ideas can point to the effects that words actually had on their audiences, as their minds became the locus of interaction between word and image.

The ancient discussions of ekphrasis define it as a type of speech that creates immaterial images in the mind. The speaker of a successful ekphrasis is therefore a metaphorical painter, the result of his words is a metaphorical painting and this analogy emerges at certain points in the discussions. The Byzantine scholar John Sardianos, for example, commenting on the ancient rhetorical texts that were still in use in the Greek Middle Ages, points out that ekphrasis works by 'imitating the painters' art'. [43] How this paradoxical feat could be accomplished, and why it was considered useful for students of rhetoric, will be the subject of the next chapters. Before addressing these questions, I would like to return to the modern definition to trace the processes by which the definition took on its familiar modern contours. I believe it is particularly important to try to identify the various ideas and interests that gave rise to the modern definition since the intellectual climate in which it developed was radically different from the world of the ancient rhetors.

[43] Sardianos, *Commentarium*, p. 217, ll. 3–5.

Ancient and Modern Ekphrasis

As outlined above, the basic modern definition grew out of the ancient one by a double process of restriction and expansion, resulting in a concept that is related to but radically different from the ancient meaning that is the subject of this book. First, attention was focused on those ekphraseis that described paintings, sculptures and monuments, leading to an association of the term with that restricted range of

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subject matter; then the term's frame of reference was expanded to include other texts, both ancient and modern, referring to the arts. The end result of this process was a genre of writing about art that is often considered to be best exemplified by poetic examples. [44] In antiquity, by contrast, ekphrasis was part of a rhetorical training. The authors of the *Progymnasmata* adduced examples from poetry, like the Shield of Achilles or descriptions of characters from epic, but they were part of a system in which the reading of poetry was largely subordinated to the study of rhetoric. It is ironic that an ancient rhetorical technique should have metamorphosed into an essentially poetic phenomenon, but this contrast reveals one of the key differences between the culture of Roman period and modern aesthetic interests.

[44] Murray Krieger, *Ekphrasis: The Illusion of the Natural Sign* (Baltimore, 1992) and James A.W. Heffernan, *Museum of Words: The Poetics of Ekphrasis from Homer to Ashbery* (Chicago, 1993) concentrate on examples drawn from poetry; John Hollander, *The Gazer's Spirit: Poems Speaking to Silent Works of Art* (Chicago and London, 1995) defines the subject of his work as 'actual ecphrasis' – that is, poems written in response to real works of art (p. 4).

This dual process of restriction and expansion that resulted in the modern definition was motivated by diverse intellectual currents: interest in the aesthetic problems of describing the arts in words and archaeological curiosity and controversy about the realities lying behind Philostratos' *Eikones* and other ekphraseis. Although this process culminated in the mid twentieth century, before which time the term ekphrasis was mainly restricted to studies of Imperial literature and often relegated to obscure footnotes, it was the result of centuries of interest in verbal accounts of the arts.

Two French studies of Lucian's works show the general state of affairs in the earlier part of the twentieth century. It was their interest in aesthetic questions that led Henri Piot and Jacques Bompaire to focus on the special category of ekphraseis of works of art while acknowledging that the sense of the term was far wider in antiquity. Discussing the ancient definition, Piot points out that any ekphrasis (of whatever type of subject) in some sense rivals the graphic arts and is thus an example of the art of literature attempting to appropriate to itself the function of another art. [45] Bompaire, writing in the 1950s, also acknowledged that ekphrasis in Lucian's day was not conceived as a genre dedicated to the work of art but explained that he chose to focus on this type of ekphrasis simply because it was the most intrinsically interesting, showing as it did the interaction between literature, graphic arts and architecture. [46]

[45] Henri Piot, *Les Procédés littéraires de la IIe Sophistique chez Lucien: l'ecphrasis* (Rennes, 1914), p. 22: 'L'objet de l'ecphrasis, dit Hermogène "est de mettre sous les yeux la chose qu'on veut montrer". Elle a des rapports très étroits avec les transpositions d'art en honneur chez les Alexandrins' [The aim of

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ecphrasis, according to Hermogenes, 'is to place the subject which one wishes to display before the eyes'. It is closely related to the 'transpositions d'art' beloved of the Alexandrians].

[46] Jacques Bompaire, *Lucien écrivain: imitation et création* (Paris, 1958), p. 707: 'le sens le plus intéressant est celui qui fait de l'ecphrasis d'oeuvre d'art, sc. tableau, édifice, l'ecphrasis par excellence … la littérature se nourrit d'art' [The most interesting meaning is the one which treats ecphrasis of works of art (paintings, buildings) as ecphrasis par excellence … literature is nourished by art]. Cf. Louis Méridier, *L'Influence de la Seconde Sophistique sur l'œuvre de Gregoire de Nysse* (Paris, 1906), p. 150 (on Gregory of Nyssa).

The precise language used by these two scholars suggests that their interest in ekphraseis of works of art was stimulated as much by contemporary aesthetic concerns as by the popularity of works of art and architecture as subjects for ekphrasis among Lucian and his contemporaries. This is particularly clear in Piot's use of the phrase 'transpositions d'art' which recurs frequently in discussions of ekphrasis in its restricted sense from the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries. The phrase was coined by Huysmans in the early 1880s to express the way in which Odilon Redon seemed to capture in his paintings the atmosphere of Poe and Baudelaire, but it also summed up the enterprise of French decadent poets such as Théophile Gautier who attempted to translate the sensual beauty of art into words. For Gautier, doyen of the doctrine of 'l'art pour l'art', the verbal and graphic artist shared the task of representing reality through the workings of art. [47]

[47] Gautier's own writing has been described as a 'transposition écrite du tableau'. See Georges Matoré, *Le Vocabulaire de la prose littéraire de 1835 à 1845: Théophile Gautier et ses premières oeuvres en prose* (Geneva and Lille, 1951), p. 142. In his poem 'L'Art', Gautier presents verbal and sculptural artistry as equivalent: 'Oui, l'oeuvre sort plus belle / D'une forme au travail / Rebelle / Vers, marbre, onyx, émail' [Yes, more beautiful pieces emerge from forms that resist being worked: verse, marble, onyx, enamel].

The part played by such aesthetic doctrines in the shaping of the modern conception of ekphrasis is shown clearly in the studies of Philostratos by two earlier French scholars, the art historian Edouard Bertrand and the philologist Auguste Bougot, both published in 1881. Both attempted to move the study of the *Eikones* away from the question of whether the text was archaeologically accurate or not, which had dominated the scholarship up until then, particularly in Germany. Bertrand and Bougot attempted instead to understand the cultural background to Philostratos – though Bertrand's depiction of the Second Sophistic seems to owe a great deal to late-nineteenth-century Parisian culture – and identified

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Philostratos as an 'art critic' whose descriptions showed how art was perceived, an approach that anticipated twentieth-century readings of the text. [48]

[48] See, for example, Jaś Elsner, *Art and the Roman Viewer: The Transformation of Art from the Pagan World to Christianity* (Cambridge, 1995).

Bertrand and Bougot also took the step of placing the text within a tradition of poetic descriptions of works of art, a type of text which resonated with contemporary developments in French literature and arts. Both, moreover, borrowed the term 'ekphrasis' as a label for this tradition, although the ways in which they introduced it into their discussions suggest that they were far from confident about its usage. Bertrand enigmatically refers to the descriptions of works of art in authors of the Roman period such as Catullus, Virgil, Statius, Martial, Apuleius and Lucian as belonging to 'a fashionable genre which had its own name'. [49] The name turns out to be 'ekphrasis'. But Bertrand is curiously coy about saying so. He hides the word itself in a footnote and leaves it in Greek letters. Most importantly, however, he implies that Philostratos consciously saw himself as writing within this tradition. In a passage bordering on historical fiction, Bertrand imagines Philostratos as an ambitious writer, desperate to surpass these predecessors, who suddenly one day had the idea of creating the new genre of art criticism. [50] Bougot, whose translation and substantial introduction appeared just before Bertrand's study, also brought the term ekphrasis into his discussion rather ambiguously, entitling one section 'L'ecphrasis ou description des oeuvres d'art', leaving open the question of whether ekphrasis is to be understood as equivalent to description generally, or to descriptions of works of art in particular. He took the constitution of the genre of ekphrasis one step further, however, by extending its frame of reference backwards in time to include descriptions of works of art in Homer and tragedy. [51]

[49] Bertrand, *Un critique d'art dans l'antiquité*, p. 49: 'c'est un genre en faveur qui a un nom particulier'.
[50] Bertrand, *Un critique d'art dans l'antiquité*, pp. 53–4: 'Tourmenté de la même ambition, Philostrate s'était aussi créé un style singulier composé d'archaïsmes et de néologismes. Mais il eut un jour une pensée neuve, et ce jour là il créa un genre qui lui survécut et suscita des imitateurs: il créa la critique d'art' [Tormented by the same ambition, Philostratos also developed a unique style combining archaisms and neologisms. But one day he had a new idea and on that day he created a genre which outlived him and inspired imitators: he created art criticism]. The use of unusual vocabulary which Bertrand underlines here was also a characteristic of Parnassian poetics.
[51] Bougot, *Philostrate l'Ancien*, pp. 1 and 171.

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All these studies illustrate the process by which ekphraseis of works from the Second Sophistic were gradually detached from their wider rhetorical background and from the broader definition of ekphrasis current in antiquity and placed within a different context: the description of works of art generally. Just as literary scholars' interest in the enterprise of describing the work of art in words led them to detach ekphraseis of works of art from ekphrasis in general and place it in its new context, archaeologists followed precisely the same process in their study of texts like the *Eikones* and the Late Antique and Byzantine ekphraseis of works of art and architecture. They isolated these texts from their rhetorical background, treating them as precious sources of information about lost monuments. [52]

[52] Antonio Muñoz, 'Le #κφράσεις nella letteratura bizantina e i loro rapporti con l'arte figurata', in *Recueil d'études dédiées à la mémoire de N.P. Kondakov* (Prague, 1926) focused attention onto Byzantine ekphraseis of monuments and icons as a source of information on lost works. As Henry Maguire, *Art and Eloquence in Byzantium* (Princeton, 1981), pp. 22–3 has noted, the concentration on ekphraseis of monuments and works of art for their archaeological information has had the effect of distracting attention from other types of ekphrasis.

The major step in this direction was, of course, the great survey of descriptions of art and architecture in classical literature that forms the introduction to Paul Friedländer's 1912 edition of two Late Antique ekphraseis of monuments: Paul the Silentiary's ekphrasis of Hagia Sophia and John of Gaza's ekphrasis of a bath building. Friedländer's survey was to become the ultimate definition of the genre of ekphrasis (in the sense of descriptions of works of art and architecture) in ancient literature and includes all the standard examples: the Shield of Achilles, Lucian's Calumny of Apelles, Euripides' *Ion*, Greek and Latin epigrams. But while Friedländer's introduction was the most thorough review of ancient literary descriptions of works of art, he did not take the further step of defining these texts as members of a single genre, still less of reifying that genre by giving it a name. Instead, he was extremely careful to use the term 'ekphrasis' only when discussing texts like the Philostratean *Eikones* or Byzantine ekphraseis of works of art which fell into the intersection of the ancient and modern definitions or which were discussed as examples of ekphrasis in antiquity. [53]

[53] Friedländer, *Johannes von Gaza und Paulus Silentiarius*, pp. 84–5. In his 1939 edition of Prokopios of Gaza's ekphrasis of a painting, Friedländer still used the term länder still used the term 'Bildbeschreibung'.

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The reputation that Friedländer's survey has acquired as the first definitive survey of ekphrasis is particularly ironic in the light of his own deep concern about the correct use of terminology. In particular, he criticizes those anonymous scholars who have seized on the term 'ekphrasis' to explain texts like those of the Philostratoi. The rhetorical exercise, Friedländer explains, cannot in itself explain the existence of such texts; instead they should be seen against the wider background of the tradition of describing works of art and architecture in ancient literature. [54] His survey makes an important point, that clearly there was such a tradition and that texts discussing or describing the arts are to be found in many classical genres from epic to epigram, from historiography to the magpie-like miscellany of a Pliny. But he does not present these passages as a genre and sees them as distinct from the ancient practice of ekphrasis.

[54] Friedländer, *Johannes von Gaza und Paulus Silentiarius*, p. 83: 'Man pflegt heut literargeschichtliche Fragen, wie sie uns beschäftigen, mit dem Schlagwort "rhetorische Ekphrasis" mehr scheinbar als wirklich zu beantworten und glaubt, dass hier die 'Rhetorenschule' schöpferisch gewesen sei.' See also his comments on descriptions of works of art in the novel: ibid., pp. 47 and 54–5.

In collecting together these passages Friedländer, like Bertrand and Bougot, was following the lead of earlier scholarship on Philostratos: in 1709 Gottfried Olearius had included in his edition of the Philostratoi and Kallistratos a discussion of the works' origin and speculated that all three of the later writers had found a common inspiration in the Homeric Shield of Achilles. [55] Another German editor of Philostratos and Kallistratos, Jacobs (who published his edition jointly with Welcker in 1825), had taken this exploration of the origin of the *Eikones* one step further, noting the poetic precedents and citing not just Homer but also Hesiod, Theocritus, Apollonius Rhodius, Moschus, Quintus Smyrnaeus, Catullus, Virgil, Ovid and Statius. However, he did not take the further step of naming these descriptive passages 'ekphraseis' (the term is used, in Greek, in the general sense of 'description') or of claiming that they constituted a genre. [56] But the nucleus of the modern genre is here, as it would later be in a footnote by Erwin Rohde who, in his study of the Greek novels, first published in 1876, suggested that the roots of 'rhetorisch-sophistischen ekphraseis' of paintings and statues from the Second Sophistic lay in the earlier poetic tradition. [57] This note, too, mentions many of the standard examples of what would now be called 'ekphrasis', from the Shield of Achilles, through the Cloak of Jason in the *Argonautica* and Moschus' *Europa*, to Virgil, Catullus and Nonnus.

[55] Philostratos, *Opera*, ed. Olearius (Leipzig, 1709), p. 760. The decision to group the Elder and the Younger Philostratos' *Eikones* together with Kallistratos' ekphraseis of statues in a single volume is in

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itself a significant step that divorces the *Eikones* from the Philostratean corpus to place it in a context of descriptions works of art, rather than a wider rhetorical context.

[56] Interestingly, Jacobs notes in his introduction that he became interested in the *Eikones* while working on Greek epigrams about art works some 30 years earlier. He therefore approaches the text from an archaeological standpoint reflected in his use of the term ekphrasis as the equivalent of description as he understood it, i.e. an accurate account of the appearance of an object. This leads him to the ironic claim (pp. xvi–xvii) that Philostratos failed to produce proper ekphraseis and succumbed instead to the temptations of rhetorical embellishment.

[57] Erwin Rohde, *Der griechische Roman und seine Vorläufer* (Leipzig, 1900), p. 360n.

Like Friedländer's survey all these footnotes and comments served to draw attention to the phenomenon of describing works of art in antiquity but without applying the label ekphrasis to them. The term floats in the vicinity of these discussions, but, unlike Bertrand and Bougot, the authors do not apply it as a unifying label for writing on art nor do they suggest that they are discussing or defining a genre. This explains why Schissel von Fleschenberg, in his study of the use of descriptions of works of art in the novel published in 1913, does not use it but invents instead the term 'Bildeinsatz' ('inset painting') to designate what would now almost automatically be termed ekphrasis. [58] What Schissel von Fleschenberg's article does show is the growing interest in this technique as a literary phenomenon. In the same way, Bertrand and Bougot were inspired by contemporary cultural debates in their refreshing attempt to wrest the *Eikones* from the stale debates about the accuracy and reliability of the descriptions and to show that Philostratos' enterprise was something different: a reflection of the place of art in society and, in Bertrand's account, the birth of art criticism.

[58] In a letter to Friedländler written in 1913 and now in the Paul Friedländer Collection, UCLA Special Collections (Box 1). In the letter Schissel uses the term 'Bildbeschreibung' but not ekphrasis. Schissel von Fleschenberg criticizes his historicist approach as old-fashioned (as well as taking great pleasure in pointing out various omissions of primary and secondary sources). In his article Schissel justified his deliberate omission of any enquiry into the origins of the *Bildeinsatz* by distinguishing his type of literary studies (*Literaturwissenschaft*) from the (implicitly inferior) enterprise of literary history.

As we have already seen, a parallel interest in Imperial ekphraseis of paintings, sculpture and buildings as sources of information on lost works also contributed to the process. However, almost all of the classical and medieval studies acknowledge the ancient sense of the term and often take their starting points from ekphraseis of works of art. The revolutionary step of defining ekphrasis as an essentially

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poetic genre, totally divorced from the rhetorical form of ekphrasis, was taken by Leo Spitzer in his famous essay on Keats' 'Ode on a Grecian Urn', first published in 1955. Here, Spitzer identifies the ode as part of a long tradition called ekphrasis:

> it [the ode] belongs to the genre, known to Occidental literature from Homer and Theocritus to the Parnassians and Rilke, of the *ekphrasis*, the poetic description of a pictorial or sculptural work of art, which description implies, in the words of Théophile Gautier, 'une transposition d'art,' the reproduction, through the medium of words, of sensuously perceptible *objets d'art* ('ut pictura poesis'). [59]

[59] Leo Spitzer, 'The "Ode on a Grecian Urn," or content vs. metagrammar', in *Essays on English and American Literature*, ed. Anna Hatcher (Princeton, 1962), p. 72.

Spitzer does not give any source for his definition, perhaps not surprisingly, and his calm assurance masks the innovation he was making. His mention of the Parnassians and Gautier, to whom he erroneously attributes the phrase 'transposition d'art', do, however, reveal the intellectual currents which shaped his interest in and conception of ekphrasis. [60] A further parallel with Bertrand's and Bougot's studies of Philostratos in particular emerges later on in Spitzer's discussion of Keats' ode when he insists on the poem's function as a representation of the poet's response to the sight of the urn. Interestingly, he presents this as a particular development of ekphrasis, which he appears to conceive of as simply a form of objective description: 'The ekphrasis, the description of an *objet d'art* by the medium of the word, has here developed into an account of an exemplary experience felt by the poet confronted with an ancient work of art …' [61]

[60] Spitzer had previously published articles on descriptions of works of art in the poetry of Mörike, 'Wiederum Mörikes Gedicht "Auf eine Lampe"', *Trivium*, 9 (1951): 203–25 and Garcilaso de la Vega, 'Garcilaso, Third Eclogue, Lines 265–271', *Hispanic Review*, 20 (1952): 243–8. The term ekphrasis appears once, buried in a footnote, in the latter of these. Given Spitzer's background in French and classics and his interest in the description of works of art, it does seem likely that he knew the work of Bertrand, Bougot and Piot, not to mention the *Oxford Classical Dictionary*. I am grateful to Alejandro Coroleu for drawing my attention to the article on Garcilaso.

[61] Spitzer, 'The "Ode on a Grecian Urn"', p. 89.

Spitzer's achievement was to create a concept of a poetic genre that triumphantly transcended both time and place. Homer, Theokritos, the Parnassian poets and Rilke all partook of the same essence. The way

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in which he introduces the first of the quotations gives the unsuspecting reader no clue that he has just invented a genre, albeit one that had long been waiting to happen. He presents it as ‘an obvious generic statement’, a straightforward starting point for any study of Keats’ ode. His method is to separate what might count as straightforward description (‘What exactly … Keats [has] seen (or chosen to show us) depicted on urn he is describing’ (pp. 72–3)) from ‘the symbolic or metaphysical inferences drawn by the poet from the visual elements he has apperceived’ (p. 73). The statement that Keats’ poem is about an art object and that other such poems have existed from antiquity onwards is, one would think, incontrovertible, and gives Spitzer the basis for a brilliant analysis. But such a straightforward statement hides the revolutionary nature of his claim for ekphrasis and its implications of unity of poetic purpose across time and space. What is a useful concept and a useful set of *comparanda* for the critic embarking upon a reading of the ‘Ode on a Grecian Urn’ is presented as literary-historical fact.

One can speculate on the attraction of such continuity in Western culture for a refugee scholar like Spitzer. [62] But the effect of his definition, taken in isolation, was to obliterate cultural distinctions and to remove rhetoric, particularly the rhetorical culture of the Roman period, entirely from the picture. The term ekphrasis is restricted not only to ‘descriptions of works of art’ but to *poetic* descriptions of works of art and simultaneously expanded to include all periods of ‘Western culture’. The rest is history. Spitzer’s constitution of the new genre of ekphrasis catapulted the word out of the specialized domain of classical and archaeology into the world of English and Comparative Literature, sparking essays, books, colloquia, redefinitions and counter-definitions. [63] The popularity and influence of Spitzer’s definition show more clearly than ever that his new genre satisfied an intellectual need. Descriptions of works of art as a group had attracted interest since the Renaissance. [64] This interest emerges in the grouping of Philostratos’ *Eikones* with Kallistratos’ *Ekphraseis* by Olearius, in the archaeological debates about whether such descriptions were records or ‘mere rhetoric’, in the fascination with the ways in which one art represents another and the autonomy of the arts that this suggests. Spitzer’s ekphrasis was a genre, or mode, in search of a label. The vogue for New Criticism meant that Spitzer’s definition fell on particularly fertile ground, as witnessed by Murray Krieger’s study of Keats’ ode and of his conception of ekphrasis. [65]

[62] Spitzer himself makes an autobiographical comment in the article, describing himself as ‘a European born scholar, nurtured in a centuries-old tradition of both scholarly and aesthetic interpretation, especially in the classical and the French fields’, as he laments the divide between ‘scholars’ and ‘critics’ in US English departments: ‘The “Ode on a Grecian Urn”’, p. 68.

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[63] See, for example, James A.W. Heffernan, 'Ekphrasis and representation', *New Literary History*, 22 (1991): 297–316 and *Museum of Words*. Jean Hagstrum, *The Sister Arts: The Tradition of Literary Pictorialism and English Poetry from Dryden to Gray* (Chicago, 1958), p. 18, n. 34 proposed his own definition: 'I use the noun "ecphrasis" and the adjective "ecphrastic" in a more limited sense to refer that special quality of giving voice and language to the otherwise mute art object.' Hagstrum is keen to provide ancient justification for his idiosyncratic usage, claiming that 'my usage is etymologically sound since the Greek noun and adjective come from *ekphrazein*, which means "to speak out", "to tell in full".' On the function of the 'ek' in ekphrasis, see below, Chapter 3 (p. 74).
[64] One of the first to conceive of literary descriptions of works of art as a coherent group was Erasmus. His rhetorical treatise, *De Copia* (II, 202), includes a list of passages describing paintings and sculptures: 'Statuarum item_ qualis est in epistolis Plinianis signi senilis; tabularum et imaginum_ qualis est apud Lucianum Hercules Gallicus, apud Philostratum varia picturarum argumenta'; to this category belong also Ovid's description of Arachne's tapestry in *Metamorphoses*, the Homeric Shield of Achilles and its Virgilian descendent, the Shield of Aeneas, ending 'ad haec navis, vestis, πανοπλίας, machinae, currus, Colossi, pyramidis, aut si quid est aliud rerum consimilium, quarum descriptio delectet.'
[65] Murray Krieger, *Ekphrasis: The Illusion of the Natural Sign* (Baltimore, 1992).

Since the mid twentieth century, ekphrasis, generally understood as the description of works of art, usually in poetry, has become a familiar term, though the basic definition has given rise to many different approaches, which it is impossible to survey here. One such development that has been fruitful in the study of classical literature is the reading of descriptions of works of art as metapoetic commentaries on the literary work within which they are found. [66] Such developments reflect the 'linguistic turn' in twentieth-century approaches to literature, a development that freed the study of description in particular from the expectation that language should depict reality and underlined the problems involved in verbal representation. [67]

[66] See, for example, Perrine Galand-Hallyn, *Le Reflet des fleurs: description et métalangage poétique d' Homère à Erasme* (Geneva, 1994) and Andrew Becker, *The Shield of Achilles and the Poetics of Ekphrasis* (Lanham, 1995).
[67] See, in particular, the essays collected in Roland Barthes et al., *Littérature et réalité* (Paris, 1982) and in *Yale French Studies*, 61 (1981).

This same development made possible a fresh appreciation of rhetorical texts of all kinds, in particular the rhetoric of the Second Sophistic, including its ekphraseis of works of art. However, the resulting

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renaissance of interest in the Second Sophistic and later rhetoric has tended to focus on those texts that most resemble modern literature, such as dialogues and the novel, and, in the case of ekphrasis, a certain subgroup of ekphraseis of works of art (such as Philostratos' *Eikones*) has come to stand as emblematic of the whole of ekphrasis. The fact that this move misrepresents the category of ekphrasis as it was understood in antiquity does not in any way undermine the interpretative value of individual studies of individual literary texts. But, if we are interested in the wider intellectual and cultural contexts in which these texts were read, heard and composed, it is misleading to assume that ancient categories and assumptions about language were identical to our own. Of course, those ancient categories are irrecoverable in their entirety but there is still a large amount of information that is still to be exploited in sources such as scholia and rhetorical handbooks. [68] This study aims to elucidate the ancient category of ekphrasis and the assumptions that underlay it by appealing to a wider range of rhetorical texts and discovering what could be called the poetics of ancient rhetorical theory.

[68] Two notable examples of such an approach are Roos Meijering, *Literary and Rhetorical Theories in Greek Scholia* (Groningen, 1987) and Michel Patillon, *La Théorie du discours chez Hermogène le Rhéteur: essai sur les structures linguistiques de la rhétorique ancienne* (Paris, 1988).

It is important to note, too, the radical differences between the interests and assumptions that drove the modern structuralist and linguistic approaches to literature and the ancient rhetorical theories that are the subject of this book. The ancient rhetoricians assume a live audience upon whom the speaker can exert an impact and their orientation is first and foremost practical (despite the appearance of obsessive categorization and subcategorization that often strikes the modern reader on first encountering their work). It is not, therefore, surprising if their ways of approaching discourses of all kinds are different from those of a modern critic whose task is to analyze a written text. We have already seen the emphasis placed by ancient readers on their imaginative and emotional responses to certain passages, precisely the type of response that is largely ignored by structuralist and post-structuralist approaches. It is remarkable that even reception theory privileges the hermeneutic mode of reading which casts the reader as interpreter engaged in a patient act of decoding. Though such approaches to texts – and images – certainly did exist in antiquity, they were not at the heart of the ancient phenomenon of ekphrasis.

Conclusion

The purpose of this excursus into the modern redefinition of the term ekphrasis is to show the intellectual interests that shaped it. Though Spitzer, for example, presents his category of ekphrasis as a

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transcendent phenomenon that has existed throughout literary history, it is very much contingent on a particular time and place and on a particular narrative of 'Occidental Literature' which leaps blithely over those aspects of ancient culture that are less readily assimilable to modern ideas of literature than are Homeric epic or Theocritean pastoral poetry. The ancient conception of ekphrasis is just as much a product of its time and its culture.

Clarity is vital precisely because of the ultimate closeness of Spitzer's definition of ekphrasis to the ancient one. We have seen how the isolation of ancient ekphraseis of works of art from ekphraseis in general was accompanied by the gathering together of poetic precedents for the description of works of art from various genres, leading to this collection of illustrative examples being understood as a genre in itself. There is therefore a genealogical connection between the ancient and modern definitions, a connection reflected in the primacy of the visual in both. But the different role of the visual is key to the profound differences between the conceptions underlying the two definitions. For the modern definition the visual is a quality of the referent, which in some definitions is already a representation of reality. For the ancient rhetoricians the impact of ekphrasis is visual; it is a translation of the perceptible which mimics the effect of perception, making the listener seem to see. The impact on the audience is powerful and immediate – as Plutarch claims for Xenophon and Thucydides; it is a psychological effect, and, as I shall argue below, what is imitated in ekphrasis and *enargeia* is not reality, but the perception of reality. The word does not seek to represent, but to have an effect in the audience's mind that mimics the act of seeing.

As moderns we cannot hope to understand something like ekphrasis entirely from an ancient perspective: the sources at our disposal represent a fraction of the definitions and paradigms available to the ancient rhetorician. [69] I am fully aware that what I am proposing in the following chapters is another modern interpretation of ancient ekphrasis. However, it is one that is based on a more comprehensive study of the ancient theoretical sources than has been undertaken before and therein, I hope, lies its main interest.

[69] See the remarks of Don Fowler in his essay 'Narrate and describe: the problem of ekphrasis', *JRS*, 81 (1991): 25–35.

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4 Enargeia: Making Absent Things Present

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Introduction: Ekphrasis and Enargeia

The surviving Greek sources on ekphrasis show how it was taught at the elementary stage of rhetorical training and, as we will see in Chapter 6, help us to understand how ekphrasis could be put to use in the context of a larger speech. The basic information they provide about the use of ekphrasis in rhetorical contexts is invaluable, but they largely leave aside the reasons *why* an orator might need to use this technique. To find explicit discussion of these questions we need to turn to a Latin source, the *Institutio oratoria* of Quintilian, Theon's contemporary. Quintilian covers the whole range of the rhetorical curriculum, reflecting the traditional teaching of Roman schools, theoretical sources and his own extensive experience of forensic pleading. He was clearly familiar with Greek rhetorical theory and many details of his teaching can be directly compared with Greek examples. [1] What Quintilian adds in particular is the practical, personal perspective of the seasoned speaker, telling us how vivid language could actually be used, and what he knew its effect on an audience could be.

[1] On Quintilian's sources, see Jean Cousin, *Etudes sur Quintilien* (2 vols, Amsterdam, 1967). For a direct comparison with Theon, see Italo Lana, *Quintiliano, Il 'Sublime' e gli 'Esercizi preparatori' di Elio Teone: ricerca sulle fonti grece di Quintiliano e sull'autor 'Del Sublime'* (Turin, 1951). On the uses of *enargeia* in Cicero, see Ann Vasaly, *Representations: Images of the World in Ciceronian Oratory* (Berkeley, 1993) and Beth Innocenti, 'Towards a theory of vivid description as practised in Cicero's *Verrine Orations*', *Rhetorica*, 12 (1994): 355–81.

The connections between Quintilian's discussion of early rhetorical education and the Greek *Progymnasmata* have been explored, particularly by Italo Lana. [2] Several of the elementary exercises he mentions have direct equivalents in the *Progymnasmata*, though nothing corresponds directly to the exercise of ekphrasis. (An earlier Latin treatise, once ascribed to Cicero, the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, devotes a section to 'descriptio', which does correspond in many ways to the Greek treatments of

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ekphrasis, but this is presented as a technique to be used in a finished speech, not as an exercise.) [3] In Quintilian's handbook, something corresponding to the Greek ekphrasis is to be found but not in his discussion of elementary exercises; nor is ekphrasis identifiable with any single figure or trope. Instead, it is to be found in his various treatments of *enargeia* (Latin 'evidentia'), the quality of language that appeals to the audience's imagination, in precisely the way that ekphrasis is said to do, and which is central to the definition of ekphrasis.

[2] Lana, *Quintiliano, Il 'Sublime' e gli 'Esercizi preparatori' di Elio Teone* and Ian Henderson, 'Quintilian and the *Progymnasmata*', *Antike und Abendland*, 37 (1991): 82–99.
[3] *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, 4.39.51. For further discussion, see below.

Enargeia in Quintilian

We saw in the previous chapter how Quintilian's distinction between a plain statement of facts ('narratio') and a narration with *enargeia* corresponds to Nikolaos' distinction between *diēgēsis* and ekphrasis. In Book 4 of the *Institutio oratoria*, Quintilian includes some remarks on this quality of vividness in his treatment of the statement of facts ('narratio'). This placement suggests that, rather like the authors of the lost Greek *Progymnasmata* mentioned by ps.-Hermogenes, he considered *enargeia* as a quality to be added to various types of discourse. In addition to this brief mention of *enargeia* under the heading of narration, Quintilian discusses it at two further main points in his treatise: as a means of arousing the emotions (Book 6) and as a figure of speech which has the particularly vital role of ensuring that the listener is swayed by the speaker's case (Book 8.3.67–9, cited above). These passages are of vital importance as Quintilian provides much of the information missing from the extant Greek treatises, explaining how *enargeia* contributes to the overall persuasive effect of a speech. He shows how important the ability to 'place before the eyes' was for the orator who wished to make his audience feel involved in the events of the case. More than that, he explains how the orator should achieve *enargeia* through the use of mental images (*phantasiai*). The way in which he describes this harnessing of the power of the imagination provides the missing link between language and sight and explains a great deal about how *enargeia* was thought to work. In particular, Quintilian's explanation of the role of *phantasia* in both the creation and the reception of vivid language helps to explain why it was reasonable for him and other ancient theoreticians to speak of language's ability to 'make visible' its subject matter, a claim that has been subjected to ridicule by at least one modern critic. [4]

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[4] See Georges Molinié, *Dictionnaire de rhétorique* (Paris, 1992), p. 145 (s.v. évidence): 'Par-delà de *la naïveté linguistique de la présentation traditionnelle (cette fameuse et ridicule suppression de l'écran du discours*, avec l'idée que l'auditeur est transformé en spectateur), on sera particulièrement sensible au caractère social de cette qualité' [Beyond *the linguistic naivety of the traditional formula (the notorious and ridiculous suppression of the screen that of discourse*, with the idea that the listener becomes a spectator), it is important to note the social and cultural aspects of this quality] (my italics).

The nature of *phantasia*, and its close association in ancient thought with the sense perceptions stored in memory, also help to explain how rhetoricians could be so seemingly sure of the precise impact of their appeals to the imagination, which is to us the most untrammelled and individual of faculties. This chapter and the next will therefore explore the theories of language, memory and the imagination which underlie the use of *enargeia* – and thus of ekphrasis – in rhetoric. Though the focus of this study is on the rhetorical contexts for ekphrasis, much of this theoretical background is relevant to the use of ekphrasis in other genres such as history or poetry – for the type of imaginative response which Quintilian assumes in an audience was considered typical of readers of different types of text.

Enargeia and Persuasion

As we have seen, Quintilian makes the same distinction as does Nikolaos between a plain statement of facts (*diēgēsis/narratio*) and a developed account which makes the audience feel present at the events described and emotionally involved in them. In forensic oratory this effect has two main functions. One is related to the orator's duty to inform his audience of the facts of his case (naturally, the facts as he would like them to be seen, rather than as they necessarily happened). This can be achieved through a plain statement of facts, but a vivid account has the advantage of capturing the audience's attention, of being more immediately memorable and comprehensible, like the paintings which Quintilian (6.1.32) says were sometimes displayed in courtrooms. To mention just some examples from classical Greek oratory, Lysias, identified as a master of *enargeia* by Dionysios of Halikarnassos, includes fast-moving yet vivid accounts of the domestic arrangements in the house of Euphiletos, who stands accused of murdering his wife's lover, in his first oration (9–14), and of the murder of his brother in the twelfth oration, *Against Eratosthenes* (6–16). [5] Demosthenes' often cited evocation of the devastation wreaked on Phokis has already been mentioned. Another example is his carefully constructed narrative of the response in Athens to the news of the fall of Elatea, which similarly involves the reader through the inclusion of details such as the time of day ('It was the evening …') and the preparations for the emergency meeting of the Assembly. [6] Kathy Eden has argued persuasively that theories of *enargeia*

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were in fact developed originally in classical Greece for such forensic contexts in which 'the narrator set out to reproduce the vividness of ocular proof through language' in the absence of physical evidence. Only later was this theory applied to discussions of poetry and other forms of literature. [7] *Enargeia* in historiography or poetry can create similar effects, as was outlined in Chapter 1, but in forensic oratory it has the additional function of making the audience into virtual witnesses by making them 'seem to see' the events described by the speaker. In this, *enargeia* attempts to achieve the unattainable ideal of a judge who has witnessed the crime and thus can reach a decision that is certain and not subject to the vagaries of interpretation and probability. [8]

[5] See Dionysios of Halikarnassos, *Lysias*, 7 and Graham Zanker, '*Enargeia* in the ancient criticism of poetry', *RhMus*, 124 (1981): 297–311.
[6] Demosthenes, *De Corona*, 169–171 (which is cited as an example of *diatupōsis* in Tiberios, *De figuris Demosthenicis*, 43).
[7] Kathy Eden, *Poetic and Legal Fiction in the Aristotelian Tradition* (Princeton, 1986), pp. 72–3 and 91–2. This does not mean, of course, that the practice of *enargeia* did not exist in poetry prior to any theoretical developments. On vividness as a kind of proof in Ciceronian oratory, see also Vasaly, *Representations*, p. 25 and pp. 254–5 and Innocenti, 'Towards a theory of vivid description', p. 374.
[8] See Françoise Desbordes, 'L'argumentation dans la rhétorique antique: une introduction', *Lalies*, 8 (1990), p. 87: 'Pour le juge, l'idéal est le flagrant délit …: il voit que X est coupable …' [For the judge, the ideal is for the criminal to be caught in the act …: he can see that X is guilty.]

Inseparable from this representational and informative function of *enargeia* is its ability to move the audience and to make them feel the emotions appropriate to the events described. This it shares with the pieces of physical evidence which were sometimes brought into Roman courtrooms: the swords, blood-spattered cloaks, fragments of bone and wounds which served both to confirm the speaker's version of events and to arouse the emotions of the audience (6.1.30). In fact, Quintilian's treatment of *enargeia* in Book 6 of the *Institutio oratoria* is part of a broader discussion of emotional appeals, and this combination of a feeling of presence and the arousal of the appropriate emotions is the key to the rhetorical function of ekphrasis: the audience should feel not just that they understood the facts and arguments intellectually, but that they were with the speaker, whether Demosthenes learning the fate of Elatea or Euphiletos, the wronged husband of Lysias 1, finding his wife in bed with her lover. Some examples of the use of ekphrasis in judicial and deliberative oratory – as reflected in the Greek treatises on declamation – as well as epideictic will be examined in greater detail in Chapter 6. Here, I want to explore some of the questions that are raised by the rhetoricians' references to 'placing before the eyes',

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in particular to see whether Quintilian can provide some of the information, missing from the *Progymnasmata*, about how this effect can be achieved.

Achieving Enargeia

Quintilian's activities as critic are subordinate to his role as a teacher and practitioner of rhetoric: his concern is not just to analyse texts, but to show his readers how to achieve those same effects. In the case of *enargeia* his advice varies between the enigmatic and the illuminating. One means of achieving *enargeia* which he and others mention is through the inclusion of details, and therefore corresponds to the definition of ekphrasis as an expanded and developed narration offered by Nikolaos. Quintilian provides the example of the sacked city cited in Chapter 3 to illustrate the *enargeia* that results from details ('ex pluribus', 8.3.66). The statement 'the city has fallen' may communicate the basic facts perfectly well, as he says (8.3.67), but in order to have an emotional effect on the listener, to 'penetrate the emotions', the speaker needs to 'open up' this basic statement and to describe the constituent actions: the flames, the collapsing roofs, the flight and lamentation of the inhabitants. Quintilian's other example of *enargeia* 'ex pluribus' is a passage from a lost speech by Cicero describing the aftermath of a drunken party, in which the event is described through a selection of its visible consequences (*Institutio oratoria*, 8.3.66):

> Videbar uidere alios intrantis, alios autem exeuntis, quosdam ex uino uacillantis, quosdam hesterna ex potatione oscitantis. Humus erat inmunda, lutulenta uino, coronis languidulis et spinis cooperta piscium.
>
> I seemed to see some coming, others going, some staggering with the effect of the wine, some yawning from the previous day's drinking. The floor was filthy, smeared with wine, covered with wilting wreaths and fish bones.

Here, the main event, the party, is conveyed through the description of different elements: the actions (*pragmata*) of the people who had been involved and the appearance of the place (*topos*) in which it had occurred, just as the account of the sacked city mentions the ruined and burning buildings, the distraught inhabitants and the victors. [9] In the case of the party, the event is described not as it unfolds but through the signs which the speaker claims to have witnessed, and which he aims to make the audience witness as he describes them, a special type of effect which will be discussed in more detail in Chapter 6. In both

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cases, however, the *peristaseis*, the parts of narration which play such an important role in the Greek exercise of ekphrasis, would have been a useful aid in teaching students how to achieve a similar effect in their own compositions.

[9] On the use of the *peristaseis* in this passage, see Piet Schrijvers, 'Invention, imagination et théories des émotions chez Cicéron et Quintilien', in *Actus: Festschrift H.L.W. Nelson* (Utrecht, 1982), p. 403. See also Jean-Pierre Aygon, 'L'*ecphrasis* et la notion de description dans la rhétorique antique', *Pallas*, 41 (1994), p. 48.

Other authors also mention the inclusion of details as productive of *enargeia*. Dionysios of Halikarnassos attributes Lysias' vividness to his inclusion of attendant circumstances (*ta parakolouthounta*) (*Lysias*, 7), by which he may mean the incidents which play no direct part in the case, such as the wife's teasing of her husband in Lysias 1, but which play a vital role in establishing character, making us feel that we know the speaker. For the first-century BCE critic Demetrios, *enargeia* results from reference to detail (*akribologia*). [10] For him, *enargeia* also derives from the attendant circumstances (*ta sumbainonta*), illustrated by the description by an unknown author of the sound of a farmer's footsteps as he approaches, which conveys through a single detail the gait and demeanour of the character: 'it was, for instance, once said of a countryman's walk that "the noise of his feet had been heard from afar as he approached", the suggestion being that he was not walking at all but stamping the ground, so to say'. [11]

[10] Demetrios, *On Style*, 209–10, trans. W. Rhys Roberts. Demetrios' other examples, a Homeric simile of a man diverting water to irrigate a garden (*Iliad*, 21.257) and a passage from the funeral games in *Iliad*, 23.379–81 (Diomedes' pursuit of Eumelos in the chariot race) correspond to the type of scene-painting we are talking about. Some of the examples he goes on to discuss suggest a different sense of *enargeia*, as a type of verbal emphasis. See Manieri, *L'immagine poetica*, pp. 133–7.
[11] Demetrios, *On Style*, 217. See Roos Meijering, *Literary and Rhetorical Theories in Greek Scholia* (Groningen, 1987), p. 41. As this example shows, sight is not the only sense involved in *enargeia*.

The inclusion of telling detail is also important to the other type of *enargeia* which Quintilian mentions in Book 8. This is a brief sketch 'in which an image of the whole is somehow depicted'. [12] The examples are the boxing match from the *Aeneid* (5.426) and the brief description of Verres with his mistress from Cicero's *Verrine Orations*, which Quintilian says affected him particularly as a reader.

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The difference between this and the previous type ('ex pluribus') may be that this second type expands the depiction of one element of narration (an action and persons, respectively), while the party and the sacked city both include references to the visual appearance of persons, places and actions.

[12] Quintilian, *Institutio oratoria*, 8.3.63: 'est igitur unum genus, quo tota rerum imago quodammodo verbis depingitur'. On this type of image, see Alessandra Manierii, *L'immagine poetica*, pp. 141–4.

But, in the end, as Innocenti notes, these practical suggestions on how to achieve *enargeia* in the rhetorical handbooks are less than satisfying. [13] Demetrios' claim that *enargeia* is achieved by 'leaving nothing out and cutting nothing short' (*to paralipein mēden mēd' ektemnein*, *On Style*, 209) appears to ignore the drastic selection of details which is entailed by any verbal account of any subject, his own examples being no exception. Quintilian does the same when he asks of Cicero's description of the party: 'what more would anyone who had actually entered the room have seen?' [14] Like Demetrios, he leaves aside the question of selection, though it is clear that any impact derives largely from the nature of the precise details Cicero includes. At the same time, Quintilian's remark completely elides the distinction between the words and their imaginative effect, and between that effect and the perception of reality. [15] These evasions reveal the extent to which the conception of words as provokers of images could overshadow attention to the more formal aspects of a text. To account for the effect of these passages *we* might prefer to focus on the use of figures, on the choice of vocabulary and the arrangement of words. But this is not the case for the ancient critics. Despite the fact that Quintilian's accounts of the party and the sacked city occur in his discussion of style in oratory, he pays no attention to the language. [16] Instead, he is astonishingly vague, saying simply of the latter, 'If one opens up [the idea of the sack] there will appear …', as if through an act of verbal conjuring. No reference is made to the verbal medium except as a portrait of what 'appears'. At the same time, he seems to assume that the orator's imagination (the scene that appears to him as he 'opens up' the brief statement), its verbal expression and the image which 'appears' in the audience's mind as a result of these words are both simultaneous and identical, and that this image can be equivalent to the direct perception of a thing.

[13] Innocenti, 'Towards a theory of vivid description', p. 360.

[14] Quintilian, *Institutio oratoria*, 8.3.67: 'quid plus videret qui intrasset?'

[15] See the comments of Eleanor Leach, *The Rhetoric of Space: Literary and Artistic Representations of Landscape in Republican and Augustan Rome* (Princeton, 1988), p. 17, who notes that 'The spectator sees far more, since the orator's selection and balance has conferred a neat and stylized order upon the chaotic picture of degeneracy he wants to evoke.'

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[16] The figures of speech used in this example (as Aphthonios advised for ekphrasis) are all passed over in silence, despite the fact that Quintilian will go on to enumerate several of them in the course of Books 8 and 9: use of accumulation (*sunathroismos* – a technique of amplification discussed by Quintilian, *Institutio oratoria*, 8.4.27) underlined by *polysundeton* (breathless repetition of 'et' 9.3.51) and *homoioptōton* (9.3.78). It is also worth noting that, according to Tiberios, *De figuris Demosthenicis*, 43, some authorities differed on whether *diatupōsis* was a figure of speech or a figure of thought.

Enargeia and Phantasia

The vagueness about the linguistic aspects of *enargeia* and the confidence in its powers displayed by rhetoricians are significant. They point to the complexities of a phenomenon which goes beyond the normal functions of language and which can often only be expressed, as in the case of ekphrasis itself, by recourse to metaphor and simile. [17] They are also a consequence of the way in which language and image were thought to interact in the mind of both speaker and listener. Quintilian's understanding of the process emerges more clearly earlier in the *Institutio oratoria* when, in Book 6, he discusses the production of *enargeia* from the orator's point of view and discloses his understanding of the psychological processes involved. In his discussion of how to arouse emotion in a murder case he suddenly breaks into a display of *enargeia* which is close in subject matter and in some of its details to Theon's example of the vivid evocation of a murder to be used as part of a common place (109.3–11, cited in Chapter 3, above), a subject that seems to have been a schoolmaster's favourite:

[17] Manieri, *L'immagine poetica*, p. 148 notes that '#νάργεια è una nozione difficilmente racchiudibile negli schemi della precettistica retorica' [*enargeia* is a notion that was difficult to encompass within the schemes of rhetorical theory].

> When I am lamenting a murdered man will I not have before my eyes all the things which might believably have happened in the case under consideration? Will the assailant not suddenly spring out, will the victim not be terrified when he finds himself surrounded and cry out or plead or run away? Will I not see the blow and the victim falling to the ground? Will his blood, his pallor, his dying groans not be impressed on my mind? This gives rise to #νάργεια, which Cicero calls *illustratio* and *evidentia*, by which we seem to show what happened rather than to tell it; and this gives rise to the same emotions as if we were present at the event itself.
>
> Hominem occisum queror: non omnia quae in re praesenti accidisse credibile est in oculis habebo? non percussor ille subitus erumpet? non expauescet circumuentus, exclamabit uel rogabit uel fugiet?

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> non ferientem, non concidentem uidebo? non animo sanguis et pallor et gemitus, extremus denique expirantis hiatus insidet? Insequetur #νάργεια, quae a Cicerone inlustratio et euidentia nominatur, quae non tam dicere uidetur quam ostendere, et adfectus non aliter quam si rebus ipsis intersimus sequentur. (6.2.31–2)

As in Theon's version, the 'showing' is not subjected to any form of *linguistic* analysis. But it is clear from this passage why this is the case: *enargeia* is conceived of as the result of an internal, *psychological* process. For Quintilian, the first step in producing *enargeia* in a speech was for the orator to imagine the subject for himself. To borrow Quintilian's own image from Book 8, the idea of murder is 'opened up' in the orator's own mind and some key phases of the action are organized into a temporal sequence, from the aggressor's first appearance on the scene to the victim's dying breath. His account of the scene is presented as a description of the mental process in the form of a series of rhetorical questions describing the visual and aural details he would summon up for himself. Quintilian makes no explicit comment on his use of language, preferring instead to enact the production of *enargeia*. And, in the very act of verbalizing his exercise in visualization, he demonstrates *enargeia*, like the magician pulling the rabbit out of his hat. His seamless progression from precept to practice, combined with his reticence about language, suggests that words are important to this process only as the means by which an internal, mental image is conveyed from speaker to listener. [18]

[18] See Mireille Armisen, 'La notion d'imagination chez les anciens II: la rhétorique', *Pallas*, 26 (1980), p. 14: 'Tout en passant par le logos, écrit ou parlé, la phantasia rhétorique annule cet intermèdiaire et se résout en une nouvelle représentation mentale qui est l'écho dans l'esprit de l'auditeur de l'image initiale conçue par l'orateur' [Even as it is transmitted by the word (whether written or spoken) rhetorical phantasia cancels out this intermediary and takes the form of a new mental image which is the echo, in the listener's mind, of the initial image conceived by the orator].

Immediately before this display of *enargeia* in action Quintilian had given more details about the speaker's mental processes. The speaker is said to summon up his own vision of the scene by means of *phantasiai*, a Greek term glossed in Latin as 'visiones'. It is a process which he compares to the spontaneous habit of daydreaming (he mentions travelling, fighting and possessing wealth as common fantasies) and which, he claims, the speaker can cultivate in himself as part of his training as an orator:

> What the Greeks call *phantasiai* (we shall call them 'visiones', if you will,) are the means by which images of absent things are represented to the mind in such a way that we seem to see them with our eyes and to be in their presence. Whoever has mastery of them will have a powerful effect on the

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> emotions. Some people say that this type of man who can imagine in himself things, words and deeds well and in accordance with truth is 'good at imagining' (*euphantasiōtos*).
>
> Quas φαντασίας Graeci uocant (nos sane uisiones appellemus), per quas imagines rerum absentium ita repraesentantur animo, ut eas cernere oculis ac praesentes habere uideamur, has quisquis bene ceperit, is erit in adfectibus potentissimus. Quidam dicunt ε#φαντασίωτον, qui sibi res uoces actus secundum uerum optime finget. (6.2.29–30)

For Quintilian, therefore, effective *enargeia* in oratory – and in poetry, as he goes on show – is the result of a controlled and conscious process of visualization. He seems to believe that, although this ability, like the others required by the speaker, varied from individual to individual, it could be developed by training. So it does seem, as suggested in Chapter 1, that the expectation of visual response was far more widespread and developed among ancient audiences than among modern readers. Not only was it talked about and theorized, but students were encouraged to imagine and to assume that the texts they read were the products of others' powers of visualization. All this must have encouraged an awareness of visualization as an important element of both reading or listening to others' work and creating one's own.

Communicating Images: Enargeia and Phantasia

In his own examples of *enargeia* (the murder and the sacked city of Book 8) Quintilian assumes a live performance situation in which the transmission of mental images and their concomitant emotions between a speaker and his audience is a vital part of rhetorical interaction in the forum or school. Ps.-Longinos describes the process in a similar way, with similar vocabulary, explaining *phantasia* as resulting 'when, under the effects of inspiration and passion, you seem to see what you are speaking about and bring it before the eyes of your listeners' [#ταν # λέγεις #π' #νθουσιασμο# κα# πάθους βλέπειν δοκ#ς κα# #π' #ψιν τιθ#ς το#ς #κούουσιν]. [19]

[19] Ps.-Longinos, *On the Sublime*, 15.1.

This formulation rolls the distinct moments of Quintilian's account into one single process, termed *phantasia*. Both make more specific the vague, uncontextualized reference in the *Progymnasmata* to the 'eyes' (*opsis*) to which the subject of an ekphrasis (*to dēloumenon*) is displayed. These are the mind's eyes of the audience to whom the speech is addressed and who form the equivalent of a painting, or rather a set of moving impressions, in their imagination.

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Ps.-Longinos' use of the single term *phantasia* to encompass the author's imagination, the words he utters and the resulting impression in the listener's mind reveals the intimate connections between mental images and the words that both result from and create them. Words and mental images are not the only phenomena to be fused in this way, for both Quintilian and ps.-Longinos assume that what the audience will feel that they can 'see' is the same as what the orator 'sees' and that the listener or reader will share the vision that he has created in his mind. In this way, the speaker's visual image is assumed to be transmitted to the audience through the medium of words and to give rise to a comparable image in their minds.

Accessing the Author's Imagination

Both Quintilian and ps.-Longinos write as if vivid language can actually give access to the mind which gave rise to it. That is, if *enargeia* arises from mental images, it must be possible to work back up the chain and to reconstruct the creative process, or rather the original mental image which gave rise to the words that prompt the reader's own mental image. Both authors make comments to this effect with reference to examples of *enargeia* in poetry. Ps.-Longinos (15.2) remarks that Euripides, when he wrote *Orestes*, 255–7 ('Mother, I beg you, do not set upon me the bloodstained, snakelike virgins! Here they come, pressing upon me!'), must have seen the Furies who Orestes imagined were tormenting him. 'Here,' he claims, 'the poet saw the Furies himself and compelled the audience to almost see what he imagined (*ephantasthē*)'. [20] In his discussion of *enargeia* in Virgil, Quintilian likewise asks, 'had the poet not thoroughly ('penitus') conceived an image ('imago') of death to be able to say [of the Argive Antores] 'and, dying, he remembered sweet Argos?' [21] These claims rely on the assumption that the poet himself worked by creating mental images that he then expressed in words (as Aristotle recommended to the tragic poet for other reasons in the *Poetics*, 1455a) and that these same words can therefore allow the reader to access and share this image. So it is with the orator: both the speaker and the listener are involved in the creation of mental images and both are metaphorical painters of these immaterial images.

[20] #ντα#θ' # ποιητ#ς α#τ#ς ε#δεν 'Ερινύας. # δ' #φαντάσθη, μικρο# δε#ν θεάσασθαι κα# το#ς #κούοντας #νάγκασεν. As Armisen, 'La notion d'imagination chez les anciens II', p. 15 notes, Euripides' passage works less by the description of details than by its emotional intensity, as revealed by the viewer's response. On this passage, see also Jean-Louis Labarrière, 'Faut voir à voir! Considérations pseudo-Longiniennes', *Métis*, n.s. 4 (2006): 71–93.

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[21] Quintilian, *Institutio oratoria*, 6.2.33: ‘non idem poeta penitus ultimi fati concepit imaginem, ut diceret: “Et dulces moriens reminiscitur Argos?”’ (*Aeneid*, 10, 782).

In both these examples of poetic *enargeia* the evocation of a character’s perceptions – Orestes’ hallucination and Antores’ final memories – plays a vital role. In the second example, as Jean-Pierre Aygon has noted, Quintilian has in mind a passage several lines long. [22] But the single line quoted does seem to bear a special significance: Antores’ death is conveyed by the briefest of evocations of the final thoughts and images that passed through his mind, while Orestes’ words contain direct allusions to the appearance of the Furies. In both cases, the poet’s mental image, to which the reader has access through the text, is itself a representation of the character’s mental image. [23] There is thus a chain of images which ultimately allows the reader or listener both to share in the experience of the character and to admire the skill of the poet.

[22] Jean-Pierre Aygon, ‘“Imagination” et description chez les rhéteurs’, *Latomus*, 63 (2004), pp. 118–19.
[23] Although it is not stated by Virgil, it is likely that Quintilian assumed that Antores’ memory of his homeland itself took the form of a visual image, given the close association between sense perceptions and memory in ancient thought, on which, see below.

The Impact on the Listener

Quintilian’s discussion of *enargeia* reveals a conception of language as an active force. [24] Both he and ps.-Longinos use powerful, physical imagery to express the impact of vivid speech on the listener, a reminder that theirs is still a predominantly oral conception of language. [25] For Quintilian, vivid language ‘penetrates the emotions’, while for ps.-Longinos rhetorical *phantasia*, the end result of which is *enargeia*, ‘not only persuades but enslaves the listener’ [ο# πείθει τ#ν #κροατ#ν μόνον, #λλ# κα# δουλο#ται]. [26] When, in Book 8 of the *Institutio oratoria*, Quintilian contrasts the plain statement of facts (*narratio*) with the vivid version of the same events he distinguishes the effect of the two types of discourse in terms of their physical impact on the listener. The plain statement reaches only the ears while the vivid version, the equivalent of ekphrasis, ‘displays the subject to the eyes of the mind’:

[24] As noted by Molinié, *Dictionnaire de rhétorique*, p. 145: ‘[Le discours] est appréhendé ainsi comme acte, come dynamisme qui peut même modifier la réalité de la situation existentielle, concrète, des partenaires dans la relation oratoire’ [[Speech] is thus perceived as an action, as a dynamic force which can even change the reality of the actual situation in which the partners in the rhetorical exchange find themselves].

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[25] On an understanding of language as power and action as typical of oral cultures, see Walter Ong, *Orality and Literacy: The Technologizing of the Word* (London and New York, 1988), pp. 31–2.
[26] Ps.-Longinos, *On the Sublime*, 15.9.

> It is a great skill to be able to speak of our subject matter clearly and so that it seems visible. For the speech is not sufficiently effective, nor does it have as complete a control as it should if it merely reaches the ears so that the judge thinks that the facts of the case are being told to him and not expressed in full and displayed to his mind's eye.
>
> Magna uirtus res de quibus loquimur clare atque ut cerni uideantur enuntiare. Non enim satis efficit neque, ut debet, plene dominatur oratio, si usque ad aures ualet, atque ea sibi iudex de quibus cognoscit narrari credit, non exprimi et oculis mentis ostendi. (8.3.62)

The implication is that vivid language reaches different parts of the mind, penetrating more deeply into the listener to reach the 'mind's eye' (the Latin distinguishes between inner and outer senses of sight, where our Greek sources do not). The distinction between words which stay on the surface of the body, by which Quintilian presumably means plain statements of fact and arguments, and those which penetrate inside to appeal to the 'eyes of the mind', reveals a conception of the human body as permeable and of words as a quasi-physical force, both of which are familiar from other ancient sources. [27] The difference is more than a technical distinction between 'showing' and 'telling'. Instead, it lies in the way each mode of discourse is received by the listener: *enargeia* derives from the innermost recesses of the speaker's mind and works its way inside the listener to produce its intense effect.

[27] Even at the elementary level of the *Progymnasmata*, Theon (72.1–2) recommends that students should aspire to make their words 'dwell in the mind' of their listeners. Plutarch, *Moralia*, 37F–38B recommends ear-guards to protect the young. The eyes were considered particularly vulnerable openings – see below on the effect of the sight of the beloved upon the viewer. On words as physical entities in Stoic thought, see Catherine Atherton, *The Stoics on Ambiguity* (Cambridge, 1993), p. 44 on Diogenes Laertios, 7.55–6. See also Gorgias' corporeal logos (*Encomium of Helen*, 8).

So the judge must be made to feel not just that he is hearing the facts of the case, but that he can actually see the events playing out before his eyes. [28] Such a display is by no means sufficient by itself. It is clear from Quintilian's discussion that rhetorical *enargeia* is just one weapon in the orator's arsenal and this is echoed by ps.-Longinos when he introduces an important qualification to the dominating power of *enargeia* in oratory: it is only when used in combination with factual arguments that *phantasia* works

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this effect. When an orator does manage to combine the two he is, by implication, invincible. [29] Both supply a term that was missing from most of discussions of ekphrasis in the *Progymnasmata*: the emotion which accompanies the mental image 'placed before the eyes'. For ps.-Longinos, *phantasia*, whether in poetry or oratory, aims for emotive effect (*to pathētikon*) and to stir the listener (*to sunkekinēmon*). [30] For Quintilian, a brief statement ('brevis nuntius', *diēgēsis*) in a speech conveys the basic information adequately but 'penetrates the emotions' less than the expanded version (narration with *enargeia*, ekphrasis). [31] Indeed, the mental image itself is almost superfluous. Its function is to arouse the desired feeling in the listener, whether the vague feeling of pleasure (*hēdonē*) that Nikolaos ascribed to ekphrasis in epideictic contexts or the feeling of indignation (*deinōsis*) or its concomitant, pity, associated with accounts of the fall of cities. [32] Even when the effect is not what we might strictly speaking call 'emotional', the physical understanding of the impact of *enargeia* means that a reader /listener who conceives an image of any kind in his or her mind is still undergoing a *pathos* of some kind as he or she experiences the words' effect. [33]

[28] Leach, *The Rhetoric of Space*, p. 15 interprets Quintilian's words as implying the 'production of a static image', but Quintilian's wording allows for events to be 'displayed' as developing scenarios, as the parallel with *narratio* suggests. See also above on the association between *enargeia* and movement in the scene described.

[29] Ps.-Longinos, *On the Sublime*, 15.9. The further comments about the potentially overwhelming impact of *phantasia* in rhetoric at 15.11 need to be read in this context.

[30] Ps.-Longinos, *On the Sublime*, 15.2.

[31] Quintilian, *Institutio oratoria*, 8.3.67: 'in adfectus minus penetrat brevis hic velut nuntius'. In Theon, *Progymnasmata*, 71, ll. 31–2, too, it is words that are vivid (*enargēs*) that will inhabit the listeners' minds.

[32] Demosthenes, 19.65 is cited by Nikolaos as an example of the use of ekphrasis to achieve *deinōsis* (see above, Chapter 3, p. 76). See also the *Rhetorica ad Herennium*, 4.39.51 and Cicero, *De inventione*, 1.54.104 and 107.

[33] *Phantasia* itself was understood as a type of *pathos*. See Frédérique Ildefonse, 'Evidence sensible et discours dans le stoïcisme', in Carlos Lévy and Laurent Pernot (eds), *Dire l'évidence* (Paris, 1997), p. 116.

Enargeia and the Feeling of Presence

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Quintilian's discussion of *enargeia* in Book 6 grows out of a broader discussion of emotion and is introduced as a means to an end. The use of visualization is first introduced as a means of ensuring that the speaker is appropriately involved in the version of events he is presenting. For, Quintilian claims, in order to move an audience, the speaker must himself be moved (6.2.26; cf. Horace, *Ars Poetica*, 102). He draws an analogy with actors whom, he says, he has seen leaving the stage in tears because of their intense involvement in the plot (6.2.27–8 and 35). In terms of the effect on the audience of judicial oratory or declamation, the analogy with the actor is particularly apt for, like the audience in the theatre, they are made to be witnesses of events from the past. Quintilian emphasizes this time-warping action of *enargeia* in a further discussion of the art of 'placing before the eyes' ('sub oculos subiectio') in *Institutio oratoria*, 9.2.40–1 (here he treats vivid presentation as a figure called variously 'evidentia', *hupotupōsis* and *diatupōsis*). Because of its capacity to make the audience feel present at past and future events, this effect is also called 'translatio temporum' or, in Greek, *metastasis* or *metathesis* (a 'transference [of time]') (9.2.41). [34] The listener may be transported either to the past, or to a hypothetical future, as is shown in the passage Quintilian cites from Cicero's *Pro Milone* (33) which paints a picture of the future consequences of an action. [35] *Metathesis* is more than a simple switch in the time referred to in the speech. Instead, the speaker is said to transport his audience in imagination back or forward to the events in questions, making use of the ability of *enargeia* to make them feel 'as if' they were present.

[34] See Meijering, *Literary and Rhetorical Theories*, p. 42. The Greek term *metastasis* appears in modern editions of Quintilian, but Isidore of Seville, *De rhetorica*, 34 uses *metathesis* in this sense: 'Metathesis est [figura] quae mittit animos iudicum in res praeteritas aut futuras' [*Metathesis* is [the figure] which sends the minds of judges to past or future events] (the examples are an appeal to remember the sack of a city and the evocation of future troubles from *Pro Milone*, 33, an example also used by Quintilian). I will follow Isidore in using *metathesis* in the sense of 'transference of time' to avoid confusion with the technical sense of *metastasis* in declamation to mean 'transference of blame'.
[35] Ps.-Longinos, *On the Sublime*, 15.9 cites a similar attempt to play 'let's suppose' from Demosthenes, 24.208 (also from the end of a speech). These examples correspond to the third type of *diatupōsis* identified by Tiberios, *De figuris Demosthenicis*, 43 (the evocation of hypothetical events).

Enargeia, as discussed by Quintilian, shares this power with poetry (as is evident from his frequent use of poetic examples and from ps.-Longinos) [36] and with historiography. The subtlest discussion of the similarities and differences between *enargeia* in oratory and poetry is to be found in ps.-Longinos, who

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gives serious consideration to the nature and function of visualization in poetry, unlike the rhetoricians who, on the whole, use poetic examples for their own ends. As we have seen, he states that both aim to move and stir the reader or listener, but this statement is prefaced by an attempt to explain the differences between what he terms '*phantasia*' in poetry and oratory:

[36] As noted in Chapter 3 above, ps.-Hermogenes also compares *diaskeuē* to poetry.

> It will not escape your attention that rhetorical *phantasia* has one aim while, when used by poets, it has another nor that the goal of phantasia in poetry is astonishment (*ekplēxis*) while that of rhetoric is *enargeia*, though both seek to create an emotional effect and excitement. [37]
>
> [37] Ps.-Longinos, *On the Sublime*, 15.2.
>
> #ς δ' #τερόν τι # #ητορικ# φαντασία βούλεται κα# #τερον # παρ# ποιητα#ς ο#κ #ν λάθοι σε, ο#δ' #τι τ#ς μ#ν #ν ποιήσει τέλος #στ#ν #κπληξις, τ#ς δ' #ν λόγοις #νάργεια, #μφότεραι δ' #μως τό τε <παθητικὸν> #πιζητο#σι κα# τό συγκεκινημένον.

Longinos' attribution of *enargeia* to rhetoric alone is unusual in that the term is frequently used elsewhere of vividness in poetry. He makes his distinction clearer at the end of his discussion of *phantasia* when he returns to its use in rhetorical contexts after an extended discussion of passages from tragedy:

> Nevertheless, in the poets, *phantasia* involves a type of exaggeration that is more suitable to myth and, as I have said, goes beyond the bounds of credibility, while the best form of rhetorical *phantasia* respects the possible (*emprakton*) and the true (*enalēthes*) …
>
> ο# μ#ν #λλ# τ# μ#ν παρ# το#ς ποιητα#ς μυθικωτέραν #χει τ#ν #περέκπτωσιν, #ς #φην, κα# πάντη τὸ πιστὸν #περαίρουσαν, τ#ς δ# #ητορικ#ς φαντασίας κάλλιστον #ει τὸ #μπρακτον κα# #νάληθες … [38]
>
> [38] Ps.-Longinos, *On the Sublime*, 15.8.

As Roos Meijering points out, poets have a greater freedom than orators in that they are able to 'place before the eyes' scenes that are fantastic and impossible in the real world (such as Furies or Phaethon's heavenly ride in the chariot of the Sun) as well as scenes that are lifelike. [39] For orators to pretend to see Furies (as ps.-Longinos claims contemporary speakers do) is an absurdity that he condemns as inappropriate. As the first contrast between poetry and rhetoric suggests, a further difference lies in the

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effect on the listener of such visualization. While poets need only create a stunning impact (*ekplēxis*) on the listener, orators need to shape and control both the subject matter and its presentation, subordinating it to the specific requirements of the speech. Firstly, the subjects of rhetorical *enargeia* must be like truth (*enalēthēs*). In this, rhetorical visualization does have the connotations of direct perception that are present in the root sense of the terms *enargeia* and *enargēs*: they are at least close to the world that is the object of that perception. [40] But this closeness is only relative, in comparison to the fantastic subjects of poetic *phantasia*.

[39] Meijering, *Literary and Rhetorical Theories*, pp. 71–2.

[40] See Barbara Cassin, 'Procédures sophistiques pour construire l'évidence', in Carlos Lévy and Laurent Pernot (eds), *Dire l'évidence: philosophie et rhétorique antiques* (Paris, 1997), pp. 15–29; On the meanings of the term, see Manieri, *L'immagine poetica*, pp. 105–12 and Juliette Dross, 'De la philosophie à la rhétorique: la relation *entre phantasia* et *enargeia* dans le traité *Du sublime* et l' *Institution oratoire*', *Philosophie antique*, 4 (2004): 61–93.

In underlining the need for the images used by orators to be in accordance with truth, ps.-Longinos echoes other sources on *enargeia* and related terms. Several times Quintilian repeats the key advice that, when summoning up an image to be conveyed in words, the speaker should be careful to confine himself to what is 'like truth' or 'what usually happens' or what is 'credible'. [41] His attribution of power to the orator who is *euphantasiōtos* (6.2.30) contains the important qualification that the images must be 'secundum uerum', 'in accordance with truth'. This requirement is not surprising. Probability and verisimilitude (distinct ideas but with a considerable amount of overlap in practice) were the hallmarks of the rhetorical presentation of facts. [42] The reasons seem obvious: a narrative needs to conform to an audience's expectations of what is likely or probable and to their experience of the world if it is to be believed. As Quintilian notes (4.2.34), the question of truth is a different matter: many true things are not credible, whereas untrue things can be like truth ('uerisimilia'). It is this discussion that leads to Quintilian's first mention of *enargeia* (4.2.63–5), where he insists, in opposition to some other nameless authorities, that a false story needs to be as vivid ('euidens', *enargēs*) as possible if it is to be convincing. He thus makes clear that likeness to truth is a quality that results from the orator's presentation of his story, rather than from the underlying facts themselves. [43] The concern for verisimilitude that we see in the discussions of *enargeia* is one indication of its rhetorical function for the quality of 'likeness to truth' was vital in narrations just as the ideas of probability and credibility

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played a vitally important role in rhetorical argumentation. The multiple interconnections of *enargeia* and ekphrasis with these notions will be explored further in the next chapter. But before moving on to this, it is important to note another, rather different aspect of *enargeia*.

[41] Quintilian, *Institutio oratoria*, 6.2.30, the speaker should visualize 'secundum verum' [according to truth]; 6.2.31 'omnia quae in re praesenti accidisse credibile est' [everything that could credibly have happened in the present case]. In his discussion of *diaskeuē* in *On Invention*, 3.15 (p. 167, ll. 11–17), ps.-Hermogenes similarly emphasizes the need for such depictions to be credible (*pithanos*) and probable (*eikos*).

[42] Quintilian, *Institutio oratoria*, 4.2.31 treats the terms 'uerisimilis', 'probabilis' and 'credibilis' as interchangeable. On these terms, see, for example, Claude Moussy, '*Signum* et les noms latins de la preuve: l'héritage de divers termes grecs', in Jacqueline Dangel (ed.), *Grammaire et rhétorique: notions de Romanité* (Strasbourg, 1994).

[43] I would therefore not agree with Cockcroft, 'Fine-tuning Quintilian's doctrine of rhetorical emotion', p. 503, who suggests that 'Quintilian would be likely to favour a literal and unambiguous factual representation of that *res* originally taken into his mind and now again visualised.'

Enargeia and Illusion

Ultimately, whether in poetry, rhetoric or historiography, whether it represents credible or incredible things, verbally produced *enargeia* is always a matter of illusion. It thus exists in a constant tension between presence and absence. The fact that *enargeia* produces an illusion is present in the terms for likeness which are used everywhere, as in the terms of approximation ('all but') we find in the discussions of ekphrasis. For Plutarch, the reader of Thucydides is merely 'like' a spectator; Quintilian's ideal audience are made to feel 'as if' ('quam si') they were present at the murder. Moreover, even as Plutarch stresses the overwhelming sense of involvement in the events of Athenian history created by Thucydides' narrative (*Moralia*, 346F; see Chapter 1, above), he underlines the illusion involved by referring to Simonides' comparison of poetry to painting, the art of visual representation. The comparison of *enargeia* to the visual arts, made explicitly by Plutarch and implicitly elsewhere, also draws attention to the illusion involved in *enargeia* and to the way in which verbal depiction creates a feeling *like* that of presence which is not presence.

A further analogy, which similarly conveys both the power of *enargeia* and the unreality of its creations, is with the stage. When Nikolaos compares the audience of ekphrasis to spectators, the term he uses,

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theatai, implies the theatre just as much as the visual arts. Quintilian's suggests an even closer link to the stage with his comparison of the orator who uses *phantasia* to arouse his own emotions with the actor who is so involved in his role that he cries real tears (6.2.27–8 and 35). In this respect the orator and the actor both share the paradoxical state of feeling imaginary things as if they were real, a state which they are able to induce in their audiences as well. [44]

[44] See Schrijvers, 'Invention, imagination et théories des émotions chez Cicéron et Quintilien', pp. 395–408.

Quintilian attributes some of the force of the speaker's display of feeling to the fact that he is speaking of real events in which he is to some extent involved (indirectly as advocate, if not directly), but he makes clear that fictional events can affect the listener equally. He even recommends that schoolboy declaimers should think themselves into the roles they assume in their exercises, advice which assumes that emotional involvement in a fictional situation is both possible and desirable (6.2.36). Some sources reveal a certain anxiety about this identification: the Elder Seneca, for example, records anecdotes about orators who lost the ability to distinguish between their own mental images, their *phantasiae*, and reality and fell into a state of madness akin to that of Orestes. [45] It may be to distinguish the type of *phantasia* involved in rhetorical *enargeia* from the uncontrolled hallucinations of a madman that Quintilian chose to compare the orator's imaginings with daydreams, which remain under the dreamer's conscious control. [46] However, it is noticeable that the loss of ability to distinguish between visualization and reality is not attributed to the audience, nor is it a common idea in the Greek sources. The difference may reflect the different contexts of Greek and Roman rhetorical practice for, while the Greek theorists wrote for speakers who, in theory at least, discussed and evoked events that had occurred to them, the Roman practice of using an advocate meant that speakers in judicial cases were commonly required to become emotionally and imaginatively involved in events that concerned their clients rather than themselves.

[45] See Juliette Dross, 'De l'imagination à l'illusion: quelques aspects de la phantasia chez Quintilien et dans la rhétorique impériale', *Incontri triestini di filologia classica*, 4 (2004–2005): 273–90.
[46] Quintilian, *Institutio oratoria*, 6.2.30. Quintilian describes these reveries as a 'vice of the soul' (*animi vitium*).

Different texts play in different ways on the paradoxes of *enargeia*, on the simultaneous presence of the absent and absence of presence that are produced. Some examples of the ways in which authors of epideictic oratory and creators of the fictional worlds of declamation and the Greek novel exploit the ambiguities of the illusions they create will be discussed in further detail in Chapter 7. For the moment,

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however, what concerns us is the rhetorical use of ekphrasis and *enargeia* as a means of persuasion. While never losing sight of the illusion involved, rhetoricians tend to place emphasis on the *ability* of words to create presence, rather than the problematic nature of that presence. This emphasis is hardly surprising, and particularly appropriate to the communicative situation of oratory, where the audience is caught up in the immediacy of the speech and its performance, with little time to reflect critically on the nature of their experience.

Conclusions

Enargeia is therefore far more than a figure of speech, or a purely linguistic phenomenon. [47] It is a quality of language that derives from something beyond words: the capacity to visualize a scene. And its effect also goes beyond words in that it sparks a corresponding image, with corresponding emotional associations, in the mind of the listener. This process lies behind the uses of *enargeia* and ekphrasis in oratory and in other types of text. The discussions of *enargeia* in rhetorical sources are particularly interesting because of the very careful attention paid to audience response and the question of how an audience's verbally induced imaginings can be predictable, as they must be if the speech is to be successful.

[47] Armisen, 'La notion d'imagination chez les anciens II', pp. 13–14 makes the same point about *phantasia* in rhetoric.

On the surface, the ancient orators' model of 'opening up' and developing a basic statement of fact into a detailed and vivid account bears some similarities with the theory of description proposed by Philippe Hamon in his article of 1972, further developed in his book of 1981. [48] Hamon proposes a definition of description as the 'exploration of the lexical field' in which an introductory theme or 'pantonyme', such as 'garden' or 'house' gives rise to the enumeration of a series of 'subthemes' (rose, chimney) and predicates (snow, smoking). [49] This strictly linguistic approach has the advantage of breaking with the long-standing tradition of defining description by its subject matter and the further advantage of removing the representation of reality from the equation (since description is seen as a purely lexical phenomenon). [50] On a formal level, Hamon's definition of description is comparable to Quintilian's idea of 'unfolding'. Just as striking, however, are the radical differences in orientation and in the basic assumptions about language which underpin the two approaches. Quintilian is almost perverse in his refusal to analyse the linguistic aspects of *enargeia*, but his insistence on the *imaginative* engagement of both speaker and listener draws attention to a factor which is left out of Hamon's account of description.

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In this, Hamon typifies the modern critical neglect of imaginative response. What Hamon does share with the ancient rhetorical discussions of *enargeia* is an interest in the role of the reader/audience and the contribution demanded of them. But, for Hamon, description engages the *lexical* competence of the reader. [51] The two differ so radically in their approaches that it is clear they are speaking from very different worlds. Where Hamon sees only words, Quintilian sees words as the communicable aspect of mental images which are crucial to the formation and reception of those words. Quintilian and Hamon are working with radically different conceptions of language, and of the relation of words to external reality on the one hand, and to their speakers and audiences on the other. [52] In order to understand the ancient rhetorician's perspective a little better, it is necessary to move on to the theories of imagination and memory on which *enargeia* and ekphrasis are predicated. These explain some of the questions raised by the use of *enargeia* in rhetoric while shining a spotlight onto some of the paradoxes involved in making absent things present.

[48] Philippe Hamon, 'Qu'est-ce qu'une description?', *Poétique*, 112 (1972): 465–85 and *Introduction à l' analyse du descriptif* (Paris, 1981), subsequently reissued under the title *Du descriptif* (Paris, 1993). I cite the later edition here and elsewhere. For a critique of Hamon's approach to description, see Jean Molino, 'Logiques de la description', *Poétique*, 91 (1992): 363–82.

[49] Hamon, 'Qu'est-ce qu'une description?', pp. 474–6; *Du descriptif*, p. 128.

[50] See particularly Hamon, *Du descriptif*, p. 91.

[51] Ibid., pp. 41–2.

[52] See the remarks of Claude Calame, 'Quand dire c'est faire voir: l'évidence dans la rhétorique antique', *Etudes de lettres*, 4 (1991): 13–14 on the differences between *enargeia* and description.

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Conclusion

The study of the ancient treatments of ekphrasis shows that it was understood to be a type of speech that worked an immediate impact on the mind of the listener, sparking mental images of the subjects it 'placed before the eyes'. As an elementary exercise, ekphrasis gave practice in this type of speech, showing students how to expand the various elements of a narration to make sure their listeners not only knew what happened but felt as if they were witnesses themselves. The key to the nature and function of ekphrasis is its defining quality of *enargeia*, the vividness that makes absent things seems present by its appeal to the imagination. Though *enargeia* is used frequently in genres such as historiography and poetry, its effects can also be thoroughly rhetorical, helping the orator to involve his audience (and himself) emotionally and imaginatively in the subject of the speech and thus to promote their acceptance of the ideas he is putting forward. When integrated into a full-scale speech, ekphrasis served to involve the listener imaginatively and emotionally in the events at issue, making them share the speaker's indignation at a crime or, in the more complex examples, altering their perception of a fact by placing them in the situation of an eyewitness and making them share that viewer's experience. In this way, ekphrasis and *enargeia* underline the emotive and communicative aspects of rhetorical discourse and the way in which it involves the action of one mind upon another. [1] In particular, these rhetorical uses of ekphrasis demanded an active engagement from the listener who was prompted by the speaker's words to supply details, such as the actions and events that preceded the scenes of devastation that are a recurrent subject. In epideictic contexts, the effects of ekphrasis could be particularly subtle, involving an interaction between the audience's knowledge of an actual sight and the verbally induced mental image.

1 See, in particular, Chaïm Perelman, *L'Empire rhétorique: rhétorique et argumentation* (Paris, 1977), pp. 23–5.

Works of rhetorical theory, such as the *Progymnasmata* or Quintilian's *Institutio oratoria*, can help reveal the assumptions that underpinned the composition and reception of many ancient texts, assumptions that were often too deeply rooted to need full articulation. In many ways, these works are

Webb, Ruth. Ekphrasis, Imagination and Persuasion in Ancient Rhetorical Theory and Practice, Taylor & Francis Group, 2009. ProQuest Ebook Central, http://ebookcentral.proquest.com/lib/gatech/detail.action?docID=438979.
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far from 'theoretical' as they are strongly oriented towards practice, so that the orator's experience or received wisdom takes the place of explicit analysis and exposition of the underlying ideas. In the case of ekphrasis, one consequence of this lack of explicit theorization seems to have been that the ideal end result of imaginative and emotional involvement could be lost from sight. The manuals seem to have encouraged a certain formalistic conception of ekphrasis as a detailed presentation that was not necessarily vivid. At the same time, the habit of proposing all the concrete elements of narration as subjects for ekphrasis encouraged the development of ekphraseis of subjects such as places and persons as independent entities rather than as elements of a narrative.

The category of ekphrasis thus overlaps in some cases both the modern category of 'description' and the category of 'descriptions of works of art' without, however, being coextensive with either group. Some ekphraseis are of works of art; some are of objects presented as static interruptions to narration (in Achilles Tatios' novel in particular and at the end of Heliodoros' *Aithiopika* where our desire for closure is repeatedly frustrated by ekphrasis). Many of these have fruitfully been analysed as such using modern insights born of the study of the modern novel. But these are not the defining examples of ekphrasis; rather, I would suggest that they are often special cases that are used to reflect upon the conventions of ekphrasis and to point out, as in the case of Philostratos, the questions that lurk beneath the confident assertions of the handbooks.

Ekphrasis and Art

The category of 'ekphraseis of works of art' may not have been central to the definition of ekphrasis as it was conceived and discussed by the rhetoricians, but the analogy with the visual arts, not to mention the theatre, underlies the idea of ekphrasis and *enargeia*. As a type of language which makes the listener 'see', an ekphrasis of any subject aims theoretically to create an effect similar to that of a painting or sculpture. The relationship between word and image in ekphrasis is thus mimetic not in the sense of 'producing a copy of' but in the sense that ekphrasis 'acts like' a painting. The analogy goes far further in that the audience of an ekphrasis, like the viewer of a painting, can be required to supply information from his or her knowledge of the narrative background. The analogy with the visual arts also points towards the fictional nature of the products of ekphrasis and *enargeia*: like painting, they may have the power to create an illusion of presence, making the listeners feel as if they were in the presence of their subjects, but this feeling of presence is combined with an awareness of absence. An author like Philostratos makes use of the idea of painted representation to dramatize and play upon this combination of involvement and distance that is at the core of the reception of both ekphrasis and painting.

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Ekphraseis of sculptures raise similar questions, except that, in their case, the parallel tensions between the medium and the subject represented, between stillness and movement, the frozen moment and its wider context, are much more emphatically present. Buildings form another prominent class of subject matter for ekphrasis that is shared by both the ancient and some, at least, of the modern definitions. Here, too, the visible details of the building can be used to point towards the invisible attributes of the building, whether the actions of the patron which the speaker wishes to associate with the building or its unseen, spiritual qualities.

The Uses of Ekphrasis

The ancient definition may seem frustratingly vague and elusive, but its interest lies precisely in this lack of formal precision. The identification of any passage as an ekphrasis is only a first step in its analysis. Each case needs to be studied in its context to reveal its particular qualities and its function, and what is true of one ekphrasis will not necessarily be true of another. Where the unity is to be found is in the underlying ideas and the wider conceptions of reading, or the individual's relation to the word and of the interaction between language, memory and imagination. The study of ekphrasis and *enargeia* provides important information about ancient habits of reading and deeply rooted attitudes towards texts, which are seen as inviting imaginative and emotional involvement. These ancient modes of reading can be surprisingly different to our own: in the case of Thucydides' history, ancient readers saw not a dispassionate and objective account of events but a window onto the violent and turbulent events of the past. [2] In these rhetorically oriented readings, the text opens up to the reader's imagination: the words on the page dissolve into images as they impact upon the mind. This does not mean that ekphraseis, or any other type of ancient text, can only be read according to these ancient frameworks, nor that modern insights into, say, description cannot be fruitfully applied to individual examples – far from it. But it does mean that we cannot assume that ancient readers and writers shared our modes of reading and our ways of categorizing texts. Sources like the humble *Progymnasmata* provide precious insights into the practices that shaped ancient and medieval writing and reading habits.

2 Simon Goldhill, 'What is ekphrasis for?', *CP*, 102 (2007): 5–6.

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